

Monograph

Work and family research in IO/OB:
Content analysis and review of the
literature (1980–2002)[☆]

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Abstract

This monograph reviews 190 work–family studies published in IO/OB journals from 1980 to 2002. The results of a content analysis are presented which catalog these articles with respect to the study focus, nature and direction of the proposed effects, and predictor, criterion, and mediator variables examined. Then a narrative review of the articles is presented, organized in terms of the following topical areas: (1) work–family conflict, (2) work role stress, (3) work–family assistance, (4) work schedules, (5) job-related relocation, (6) career and job-related outcomes, (7) gender and the relationship between work and family domains, (8) dual-earner couples, and (9) relationships among life domains. The review concludes with a discussion of recurring themes in the literature and the identification of blind spots in the IO/OB perspective on work and family. Specific suggestions for future research are also provided.

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1. Introduction

The composition of the workforce has changed dramatically in recent decades. The Bureau of Labor Statistics projects that the number of women in the workforce will continue to rise and that by the year 2008, women will constitute 48% of the labor force, as compared to 46% in 1998 (Jalilvand, 2000). In the year 2000, 61% of all married women over age 16 were in the workforce, compared to just 41% in 1970 (US Census Bureau, 2001). Given this trend more employees are engaged in a dual-earner lifestyle where both partners work and share responsibility for family care-giving (Greenhaus et al., 2000). In fact, recent research indicates that 85% of employees report having some day-to-day family responsibility (Bond et al., 1998). These changing demographic trends, coupled with greater family involvement by men (Pleck, 1985) and heightened interest of employers in employees' quality of life (Zedeck & Mosier, 1990) prompted a proliferation of research on the relationship between work and family roles.

Despite increasing numbers of studies examining work and family issues no attempt has been made to content analyze the existing literature and no comprehensive review of the literature exists. Extant reviews focus either on specific relationships between a limited number of work and family variables (e.g., Allen et al., 2000; Kossek & Ozeki, 1998, 1999) or present selective summaries of work–family (WF) research (e.g., Greenhaus & Beutell, 1985; Rothausen, 1999). While these are useful in highlighting what we know about particular relationships between work and family variables, they do not provide a comprehensive overview of the WF literature published in scholarly industrial organizational and organizational behavior (IO/OB) journals.

This monograph seeks to fill this void by reviewing twenty years of IO/OB research on work and family, from 1980 to 2002. As Brown (1969) noted, it is important for the field to periodically “take a look at itself—where it has been, where it is now, and where it is going” (p. 263). Our goal is to provide such self-reflection for WF research in the IO/OB field. In so doing, a broad net was cast to identify all articles in the IO/OB literature that have examined work domain and family domain variables. First, we content analyze published research in terms of several characteristics including: (1) study focus; for example, whether the study involved hypothesis testing, developed and tested a model, posed exploratory research questions, etc., (2) the nature (i.e., expectation of a favorable, unfavorable, or no relationship between work and family variables) and direction [family-to-work, work-to-family, or bi-directional effects (i.e., work influencing family and vice versa)] of the relationship between work and family variables, and (3) the broad categories of predictors, criteria, and mediators studied. Content analysis is valuable for categorizing the substantive focus of published research and providing a parsimonious perspective on a topic and insight into what is viewed as important to the field.

Following the content analysis we provide a narrative review of the literature focusing on the following topics: (1) work–family conflict, (2) work role stress, (3) work–family assistance, (4) work schedules, (5) job-related relocation, (6) career and job-related outcomes, (7) gender and the relationship between work and family domains, (8) dual-earner couples, and (9) relationships among life domains.

This allows us to identify consistent research findings and assess whether research is addressing the suggestions made by WF scholars, some of whom have been critical of existing research on work and family (e.g., Parker & Hall, 1992; Zedeck, 1992; Zedeck & Mosier, 1990).

This review is limited to IO/OB WF research for two reasons. First, this study seeks to fill an identified gap in this literature and will enable us to identify strengths in this research orientation to WF, as well as possible gaps in how IO/OB research views work and family relationships. The second reason for limiting the present review is practical. Given the voluminous amount of WF research across diverse content areas, it is not possible to review and integrate all of it and accomplish the objectives set forth in this paper.

The present review is organized as follows. First, a brief overview of previous research on work and family is presented focusing on how work and family has been typically studied in IO/OB research. In so doing, existing reviews of the literature are summarized. Next, the method used to identify articles for inclusion in the present monograph is described, followed by an overview of the content analysis process. The results of the content analysis are provided next, followed by a narrative review of the literature which is organized by topical areas. The last part of the monograph includes a summary and integration of the findings, along with suggestions for future research.

2. An overview of previous work and family research

There has been debate over defining “work” and “family” in research (cf. Zedeck, 1992). In particular is the issue of whether “work” is restricted to tasks associated with paid employment or also includes task-related activities that are not associated with financial gain (e.g., volunteer work and housework) (for example, compare Kanter, 1977; Kabanoff, 1980). Because our interest is in the interface between paid employment and family activities, we restrict our definition of work domain variables to those associated with paid employment, but do not restrict this definition to full-time employment. “Family” is typically defined as two or more individuals occupying interdependent roles with the purpose of accomplishing shared goals (Piotrkowski, 1978). This definition guided our inclusion criteria with respect to the family domain. However, with recent interest in family-friendly organizational initiatives, family domain variables also include workplace programs and practices designed to help individuals balance work and family such as on-site daycare and eldercare assistance.

2.1. Existing reviews of the literature

Over the past few decades, several reviews, both quantitative and qualitative, of the work–family literature have been conducted. A summary of these reviews follows in an effort to illustrate how the present review fills a gap in the extant literature.

2.1.1. *Quantitative reviews*

Several meta-analyses have examined relationships between specific work and family variables. Much of this literature has focused around work–family conflict, “a form of interrole conflict in which the role pressures from work and family domains are mutually incompatible in some respect” (Greenhaus & Beutell, 1985, p. 77). Kossek and Ozeki (1998) explored the relationship between work–family conflict and job and life satisfaction. Their findings revealed a consistent negative relationship between all forms of work–family conflict and both life and job satisfaction. A more inclusive review of the consequences of work-to-family conflict was conducted in another recent meta-analysis (Allen et al., 2000), finding work-to-family conflict to be associated with various work-related (e.g., job satisfaction), family-related (e.g., life satisfaction), and stress-related (e.g., burnout) outcomes.

Another recent meta-analysis examined work–family conflict and work outcomes, including performance, turnover intentions, absenteeism, organizational/work commitment, job/work involvement and burnout (Kossek & Ozeki, 1999). Overall, findings illustrate that family interfering with work, but not work-to-family conflict, related negatively to work performance and attitudes. In addition, conflict between work and family, regardless of direction, “associated with higher turnover intentions, care-related absences, and lower commitment to organizations and careers” (Kossek & Ozeki, 1999, p. 25). Other meta-analytic reviews focused on specific work–family policies. For instance, recent meta-analytic work (Baltes et al., 1999) reported that the effects of flexible and compressed work schedules on a variety of work outcomes related positively to productivity, job satisfaction, and work schedule satisfaction, and related negatively to absenteeism.

2.1.2. *Narrative reviews*

Near et al. (1980) conducted an early narrative review of empirical studies examining how work relates to nonwork. Because IO/OB WF research was in its infancy in 1980, they provided a roadmap for developing theoretically grounded WF research. A few years later Greenhaus and Beutell (1985) wrote an influential review outlining the major sources of conflict between work and family roles, including time-based conflict (i.e., incompatible time demands between work and family), strain-based conflict (e.g., affective spillover from one domain to the other), and behavior-based conflict (e.g., where in-role behavior in one domain is incompatible with role behavior in the other domain) as three distinct forms of work–family conflict and proposing distinct predictors of each.

Other scholars have commented on the overall state of WF research and provided suggestions for future research. Voydanoff (1988) proposed an expanded conceptualization of work and family to include non-paid work and other family structures such as single parents. More recently Barnett and Hyde (2001) provided a critical analysis of existing models of gender and work, suggesting new ways of thinking about the work–family interface. Zedeck and Mosier (1990), and more recently, Frone (2003), outlined the prominent models that have been used to understand the relationship between work and family. Zedeck and Mosier (1990) also discussed how changing workplace trends influence WF research and noted the role of

organizational policies in helping workers balance work and family. Likewise, Frone (2003) discussed strategies for promoting work–family balance at the individual and organizational level. Other reviews have examined the theoretical frameworks used to explain work–family linkages (e.g., Lambert, 1990), cataloged how “family” has been operationalized in organizational research (Rothausen, 1999), and reviewed the mechanisms linking work and family (Edwards & Rothbard, 2000).

Finally, some reviews provide overall narrative summaries of WF research. For example, Zedeck (1992) discussed general categories of variables studied in WF research, providing a critical analysis of existing research with respect to constructs studied, research methodologies, and measures. Barnett (1998) also provided a general review of the WF literature, discussing lack of progress in this research area and proposing a cross-disciplinary model to guide future research. Finally, Greenhaus and Parasuraman (1999) provided a selective review of recent research and theory on work, family, and gender.

Collectively, these reviews have contributed greatly to our understanding of specific relationships between work and family domain variables and suggested important directions for future research. However, extant reviews have focused on specific aspects of the work–family interface rather than WF research as a whole. The present monograph builds on this research by taking a broader approach in content analyzing over 20 years of IO/OB research and summarizing the findings from these studies.

3. Method for identifying articles

3.1. Literature search and criteria for inclusion

Relevant articles published between 1980 and 2002 were identified using computer and manual searches. Computerized searches were conducted using PsychInfo and ABIInform databases using the following terms: *work-life*, *work–nonwork*, *work–family*, *work and family*, *family friendly*, *childcare*, *dependent care*, *eldercare*, *alternative work schedules*, *parent and work*, *dual-earner*, *dual-career*, *family responsive policy*, *family and human resource policy*. In keeping with the stated objectives of the present study we limited our search to the following IO/OB journals: *Academy of Management Journal*, *Administrative Science Quarterly*, *Group and Organization Management*, *Human Resource Management Journal*, *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *Journal of Business and Psychology*, *Journal of Management*, *Journal of Management Studies*, *Journal of Occupational Health Psychology*, *Journal of Occupational and Organizational Psychology* (previously titled, *Journal of Occupational Psychology*), *Journal of Organizational Behavior* (previously titled, *Journal of Occupational Behavior*), *Organizational Research Methods*, *Personnel Psychology*, *Journal of Vocational Behavior*, and *Organizational Behavior and Human Decision Processes*. These journals were selected because they either routinely publish research on work and family or consistently appear in rankings of the top IO/OB journals (Johnson & Podsakoff, 1994). Multidisciplinary journals (e.g., *Human Relations*, *Work and Stress*) and jour-

nals where the primary audience was not IO or OB scholars (e.g., *Military Psychology*, *Journal of Family Studies*, and *Sex Roles*) were excluded. Our inclusion criteria are similar to those used in several recent reviews that were also geared toward IO/OB audiences (Lee et al., 1999; Rothausen, 1999).

Although meta-analyses and literature reviews identified in the search were excluded in the present review, reference lists from them were cross-referenced for additional articles published in the journals noted above. Finally, we manually searched the *International Review of Industrial and Organizational Psychology* (1986–2002) and the *Annual Review of Psychology* (1984–2002) to identify reviews or book chapters relevant to work and family, and cross-referenced relevant reference lists for articles published in relevant journals.

Two hundred and thirty-eight articles were initially identified through this search process. To be included in the present review, several criteria had to be met. First, articles had to be data based (i.e., theoretical articles and literature reviews were excluded). Second, articles that were scale development efforts and did not pose specific hypotheses related to work and family variables were excluded. In addition, articles had to include both a work domain variable and a family domain variable. As discussed in the introduction, work domain variables are those related to paid work roles, whereas family domain variables are those related to one's role as a family member, or to family-supportive organizational policies/practices. Based on these criteria, our review captures studies with work and family interaction as the focus (e.g., Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Frone, Russell, & Cooper, 1997) and IO/OB studies that considered family domain variables but did not primarily focus on work and family (e.g., Bretz, Boudreau, & Judge, 1994; Bulgar & Mellor, 1997). This is important since this latter type of study was likely excluded in previous reviews, yet examines family domain variables of relevance to WF scholars (e.g., desire for work–family balance, family barriers). Using these criteria, 190 studies were retained. This included 20 exploratory studies and 170 studies that proposed and tested relationships between work and family variables (referred to as predictive studies). Table 1 lists the number of articles identified in each journal.

3.2. Overview of the content analysis process

The content analysis proceeded with the coding of identified articles. A multi-stage process was used to code relevant articles. First, information was obtained from each article by two coders familiar with the WF literature and entered into a database. All studies were coded as exploratory or predictive, with predictive studies further categorized as model development and testing, model testing, or hypothesis testing. Exploratory studies are those that did not pose specific hypotheses, but used data to draw conclusions about relationships between work and family variables. Model development and testing studies are those that developed and tested a theory-based model. Model testing refers to studies where an existing model (or variation thereof) was tested. Hypothesis testing includes studies that pose specific hypotheses based on various theories but do not link hypotheses to an overarching theoretical model. Two other categories emerged during coding that included combinations

Table 1
Frequency of articles by Journal of IO/OB WF research

Journal title	Frequency	Percentage ^a
Journal of Vocational Behavior	56	29.5
Journal of Organizational Behavior ^b	39	20.5
Journal of Applied Psychology	26	13.7
Academy of Management Journal	19	10.0
Journal of Occupational Health Psychology	15	7.9
Journal of Management	09	4.7
Personnel Psychology	09	4.7
Organizational Behavior and Human Decision Processes	06	3.2
Human Resource Management	03	1.6
Journal of Business and Psychology	03	1.6
Journal of Occupational Psychology/Journal of Occupational and Organizational Psychology	02	1.1
Administrative Science Quarterly	01	0.5
Group and Organization Management	01	0.5
Journal of Management Studies	01	0.5

^a Percentages are based on $N = 190$.

^b Previously titled, Journal of Occupational Behavior.

of foci: (1) Model testing and Hypothesis testing, (2) Hypothesis testing and Exploratory.

For predictive studies ($n = 170$) the nature and direction of the expected relationship between work and family domain variables was also coded. Nature of expected effects includes whether favorable (i.e., enhancing), unfavorable (i.e., inhibiting) or null effects were predicted. During coding, three additional categories emerged, including: (1) both favorable and unfavorable effects, (2) favorable, unfavorable, and null effects, (3) not noted (study posed hypotheses but direction of effects could not be inferred from hypotheses). The expected direction of effects refers to whether predictions refer to work influencing family (work-to-family), family influencing work (family-to-work), or a reciprocal relationship between work and family (bi-directional). Specific predictors, criteria, and mediator variables were also recorded as operationalized in each article. For exploratory studies ($n = 20$), variables examined were also recorded as operationalized.

Next, we developed a coding scheme to content analyze predictors, criteria, and mediators for predictive studies, as well as catalog variables examined in exploratory studies. Two raters with expertise in the WF literature developed the coding scheme using guidelines set forth by Weber (1990) and Krippendorff (1980). Each rater reviewed variables coded in stage one and independently developed a coding system consisting of broad categories of variables. Similarities among the independently generated categories were noted, and after several iterations, consensus was reached on the final coding categories. With the coding taxonomy in place, researchers clustered categories into higher-level themes and meta-themes. This final coding scheme consists of 18 meta-themes, with 80 themes subsumed under them (see Table 2). Consistent with previous research (e.g., Allen et al., 1997) two different researchers coded

Table 2

Coding taxonomy used in the present review

Background characteristics

1. Demographics (e.g., age, sex, and race)
2. Work-related background characteristics (e.g. work history and experience, work status)
3. Education-related (e.g., GPA, highest education received)
4. Leisure behaviors/practices (e.g., time spent alone)
5. Other background characteristics (e.g., age when first married)

Family characteristics

6. Family income/standard of living
7. Family responsibility (e.g., family demands, number of kids, and age of kids)
8. Marital status and type (e.g., dual-earner vs. single-earner and spouse work status)
9. Other family characteristics (e.g., family life cycle stage and home labor inequity)

Organizational characteristics

10. Organizational setting (e.g., industry, location, and sector)
11. Demographic composition of organization (e.g., proportion of women)
12. Non-family related benefits and compensation (e.g., pension benefits)
13. Family-related benefits (e.g., dependent care, flexible/alternative work schedules)
14. Other HR practices and policies (e.g., promotion practices, training)
15. Organizational structure (e.g., centralization, size)
16. Other organizational characteristics (e.g., organizational effectiveness)

Job attributes

17. Schedule/Hours (e.g., number of hours per week)
18. Characteristics of the job (e.g., skill variety, salary, and occupational prestige)

Individual differences

19. Personality (e.g., agreeableness, neuroticism, and type A personality)
20. Gender role orientation (e.g., masculinity and femininity)
21. Motivational traits (e.g., self-esteem, needs, values, and ambition)
22. Other individual differences and beliefs (e.g., liberalism)

Organizational support

23. Company/organization (e.g., employer responsiveness to work–family issues)
24. Management/supervisory (e.g., supervisor support)
25. Coworkers (e.g., work group cohesion and staff support)

Nonwork support

26. Family (e.g., spouse support and family members' help with job)
27. Friends (e.g., number of friendships and time spent with friends)
28. Community ties and support (e.g., community tenure and teacher support)

Work attitudes

29. Job satisfaction (e.g., general job satisfaction, pay satisfaction/equity)
30. Commitment/loyalty (e.g., affective and continuance)
31. Job/work involvement
32. Withdrawal cognitions (e.g., turnover intentions and thinking about being absent)
33. Other organizational perceptions (e.g., job security and opportunity for promotion)
34. Other work attitudes (e.g., desired task involvement and ease of commuting)

Career attitudes

35. Commitment (e.g., career commitment)
36. Career salience/involvement/identity
37. Career satisfaction

Table 2 (continued)

38. Career mobility attitudes (e.g., willingness to relocate)
39. Other career attitudes (e.g., perceived employment alternatives)
Family/nonwork attitudes
40. Life satisfaction
41. Family satisfaction
42. Family involvement/commitment
43. Other family attitudes (e.g., attitudes about childcare and family expectations)
44. Marital attitudes (e.g., marital satisfaction)
45. Other nonwork attitudes (e.g., leisure satisfaction and nonwork satisfaction)
Stress
46. Family stress (e.g., spouse conflict and childcare concerns)
47. Work stress (e.g., work overload, work stress, and job stress)
48. General life stress (e.g., life distress and psychological stress)
49. Role stress (e.g., role conflict, role ambiguity, and role overload)
Health and wellness
50. General mental well-being (e.g., depression, adjustment, and overall well-being)
51. Work-related psychological wellness (e.g., burnout and work adjustment)
52. Physical health (e.g., heart rate and fatigue)
53. General family wellness (e.g., family adjustment and marital adjustment)
54. Other health and wellness variables (e.g., cultural adjustment)
Work–family interaction
55. Work interfering with family
56. Family interfering with work
57. Bi-directional work–family conflict
58. Work–family conflict/work–nonwork conflict, direction not noted
59. Other work–nonwork interface variables (e.g., anticipated difficulty in combining work and family)
Spouse variables
60. Spouse work attitudes (e.g., spouses' job satisfaction with job)
61. Spouse nonwork attitudes (e.g., spouses' attitude toward employee's job)
62. Spouse background characteristics (e.g., spouse income, education, and sex)
63. Other spouse variables (e.g., spouse psychosomatic symptoms)
Child and parenting variables
64. Behavioral outcomes (e.g., conduct problems and school performance)
65. Child well-being and adjustment (e.g., child physical health and child psychological health)
66. Parenting variables (e.g., parenting style)
67. Other child variables (e.g., child perceptions of parents' job security)
Employee behaviors
68. Absenteeism/attendance
69. Turnover
70. Tardiness
71. Work performance
72. Work effort
73. Other employee behaviors (e.g., job search activity and union activity)
Coping
74. Coping strategies and coping behaviors (e.g., problem focused coping)
75. Negative coping behaviors (e.g., drinking and medication use)
76. Coping specific to work–nonwork interface (e.g., work restructuring)

Table 2 (continued)

Parent variables
77. Parent job characteristics (e.g., father job demands; father job insecurity)
78. Parent work attitudes (e.g., mother's family involvement)
79. Parent nonwork attitudes (e.g., father's family involvement)
80. Other parent variables (e.g., father's number of times laid off in 20 years)

Note. Meta-themes appear in boldface. Themes are numbered below their respective meta-theme.

predictors, criteria, and mediators into themes. Discrepancies were resolved through discussion. High agreement was obtained between coders; total of 2202 variables were coded with 88% agreement.

4. Results of the content analysis

4.1. Study focus, nature of effects, and direction of effects

The overwhelming majority of studies predicted specific relationships between work and family variables ($n = 170$, 89%) as opposed to posing exploratory research questions ($n = 20$, 11%), reflecting an orientation of IO/OB research toward predictive rather than exploratory research. Yet, as shown in Table 3, most (62%) predictive studies were categorized as hypothesis testing. Few studies focused on model testing (9%), and an even smaller percentage involved model development and

Table 3
Overall state of IO/OB WF research

Category	Frequency	Percentage
Study focus		
Hypothesis testing	118	62
Exploratory	20	11
Model testing	18	09
Model development and testing	16	08
Hypothesis testing and exploratory	15	08
Model testing and hypothesis testing	03	02
Nature of expected effects^a		
Unfavorable effects	99	58
Favorable and Unfavorable effects	30	18
Favorable effects	30	18
Null effects	02	01
Favorable, Unfavorable, and Null effects	01	<01
Not applicable	08	05
Direction of Expected Effects^a		
Bi-directional	82	48
Family-to-work	63	37
Work-to-family	25	15

^a Based on predictive studies only ($n = 170$).

testing (8%) or hybrid approaches such as combining hypothesis testing with exploratory research questions (8%) or model testing and hypothesis testing (2%) (see Table 3).

Table 3 also provides information on the nature and direction of effects. Slightly more than half (58%) of the predictive studies hypothesized an unfavorable relationship between work and family variables. In contrast, only 18% predicted a favorable relationship. It should also be noted that some studies posited both favorable and unfavorable effects (18%) and a smaller number predicted null effects (1%) or a combination of favorable, unfavorable, and null effects (<1%). Finally, the nature of expected effects for 5% of the predictive studies was coded as “not applicable” since hypotheses did not clearly specify a direction from work-to-family or vice versa. For example, one study examined gender differences in terms of both work and family related reasons why individuals prefer traditional or egalitarian marriages (Kassner, 1981). Related to the expected direction of effects, 48% of the predictive studies proposed bi-directional effects, 37% predicted effects from family-to-work, and the other 15% predicted work-to-family effects.

4.2. Predictors studied in IO/OB WF research

A total of 966 predictor variables were catalogued in the present review. Table 4 displays results of this content analysis. Meta-themes are indicated in boldface and the corresponding percentage indicates the frequency of each meta-theme. The most commonly studied predictors include Family Characteristics (12.5%), Background Characteristics (11.6%), Work Attitudes (11.2%), and Job Attributes (9.9%). In contrast, the least commonly studied predictors include Employee Behaviors (<1%), Coping (<1%), and Children and Parenting Variables (<1%).

Table 4 also shows the most highly represented themes within each meta-theme (note themes in normal type font under each meta-theme). For ease of presentation, only themes capturing at least 10% of their corresponding meta-theme are presented. Thus, the percentage in normal type refers to theme frequency within its corresponding meta-theme. This information provides a more fine-grained assessment of the specific types of variables studied. For example, within the meta-theme of Family Characteristics almost two-thirds (62.0%) of the predictors were indicators of Family Responsibility, such as the number of children, age of children, and domestic workload. Demographic characteristics (e.g., sex and age) comprised almost half (47.3%) of the variables in Background Characteristics.

4.3. Criteria studied in IO/OB WF research

Table 5 presents findings with respect to the criteria studied. A total of 734 criteria were classified, with the most frequently studied being Work Attitudes (22.2%), Work–Family Interaction (13.9%), Health and Wellness (12.7%), and Family/Nonwork Attitudes (10.8%). Least commonly studied criteria include Children and Parenting Variables (1.4%), Nonwork Support (<1%), and Parent Variables (0.0%). Table 5 also presents themes that represent at least 10% of each meta-theme.

Table 4
Predictors examined in IO/OB WF research

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Family characteristics	12.5
Family responsibility	62.0
Marital status and type	25.6
Background characteristics	11.6
Demographics	47.3
Work-related background characteristics	32.1
Education-related	11.6
Work attitudes	11.2
Other organizational perceptions	29.6
Job/work involvement	25.9
Job satisfaction	21.3
Other work attitudes	12.0
Job attributes	09.9
Characteristics of the job	65.6
Schedule/hours	34.4
Stress	08.3
Role stress	37.5
Work stress	36.2
Family stress	26.3
Organizational characteristics	07.3
Family-related benefit	35.2
Organizational setting	16.9
Demographic composition of organization	15.5
Other HR practices and policies	14.1
Other organizational characteristics	12.7
Work–family interaction	06.8
Work interfering with family	34.8
Family-interfering with work	30.3
WFC (direction not noted)	16.7
Other work–nonwork interface variables	13.6
Family/nonwork Attitudes	06.2
Other family attitudes	38.3
Family involvement/commitment	33.3
Other nonwork attitudes	18.3
Spouse variables	05.5
Spouse background characteristics	37.7
Spouse nonwork attitudes	24.5
Spouse work attitudes	22.6
Other spouse variables	15.1
Organizational support	04.8
Management/supervisory support	39.1
Company/organization support	34.8
Coworker support	26.1

Table 4 (continued)

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Individual differences	04.7
Motivational traits	35.6
Other individual differences and beliefs	26.7
Personality	24.4
Gender role orientation	13.3
Nonwork support	04.0
Family	74.3
Community ties and support	20.5
Career attitudes	02.6
Other career attitudes	28.6
Career mobility attitudes	24.0
Commitment	24.0
Career salience/involvement/identity	20.0
Health and wellness	01.8
Other health and wellness variables	35.3
Physical health	29.4
General mental well-being	23.5
Work-related psychological wellness	11.8
Parent variables	01.4
Parent work attitudes	50.0
Parent job characteristics	21.4
Other parent variables	14.3
Parent nonwork attitudes	14.3
Employee behaviors	00.7
Work performance	57.1
Other employee behaviors	28.6
Absenteeism/attendance	14.3
Coping	00.5
Coping specific to work–nonwork interface	60.0
Coping strategies and coping behaviors	40.0
Children and parenting variables	00.1
Other child variables	100

^a Meta-themes appear in bold. Themes appear under their respective meta-theme in normal type.

^b Percentages in bold represent the percentage of predictors associated with each meta-theme based on $N = 966$. Percentages associated with each theme (in normal type) represent themes accounting for 10% or more of their respective meta-theme.

So, for example, Job satisfaction comprised 35.6% of studies cataloged under Work Attitudes whereas Commitment/Loyalty represented 17.2%.

4.4. Mediators studied in IO/OB WF research

Table 6 presents results related to mediators studied in predictive IO/OB WF research. Thirty-one percent of predictive studies included mediators, which represent

Table 5
Criteria examined in IO/OB WF research

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Work attitudes	22.2
Job satisfaction	35.6
Other work attitudes	20.2
Commitment/loyalty	17.2
Work–family interaction	13.9
Work interfering with family	32.4
Family-interfering with work	22.5
WFC (direction not noted)	20.6
Other work–nonwork interface variables	18.6
Health and wellness	12.7
General mental well-being	41.9
Physical health	32.3
General family wellness	12.9
Family/nonwork attitudes	10.8
Life satisfaction	29.1
Other family attitudes	21.5
Other nonwork attitudes	19.0
Marital attitudes	13.9
Family satisfaction	11.4
Individual differences	05.4
Motivational traits	45.0
Other individual differences and beliefs	32.5
Gender role orientation	15.0
Employee behaviors	05.3
Absenteeism/attendance	30.8
Work performance	30.8
Other employee behaviors	12.8
Turnover	12.8
Tardiness	10.3
Background characteristics	03.3
Work-related background characteristics	54.2
Education-related	20.8
Leisure behaviors/practices	20.8
Stress	04.1
General life stress	46.7
Work stress	23.3
Family stress	16.7
Role stress	13.3
Job attributes	03.7
Characteristics of the job	81.5
Schedule/hours	18.5
Spouse variables	03.5
Spouse work attitudes	73.1
Other spouse variables	15.4
Spouse nonwork attitudes	11.5

Table 5 (continued)

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Organizational characteristics	03.4
Other organizational characteristics	52.0
Family-related benefits	24.0
Non-family related benefits and compensation	12.0
Career attitudes	02.9
Other career attitudes	28.6
Career mobility attitudes	28.6
Career satisfaction	28.6
Organizational support	02.6
Company/organization	42.1
Management/supervisory	31.6
Coworkers	26.3
Coping	02.4
Negative coping behaviors	38.9
Coping specific to work–nonwork interface	33.3
Coping strategies and coping behaviors	27.8
Family characteristics	02.0
Family responsibility	73.3
Marital status and type	13.3
Family income/Standard of living	13.3
Children and parenting variables	01.4
Behavioral outcomes	50.0
Child well-being and adjustment	30.0
Other child variables	20.0
Nonwork support	00.4
Friends	66.7
Family	33.3
Parent variables	00.0

^a Meta-themes appear in bold. Themes appear under their respective meta-theme in normal type.

^b Percentages in bold represent the percentage of criteria associated with each meta-theme based on $N = 734$. Percentages associated with each theme (in normal type) represent themes accounting for 10% or more of their respective meta-theme.

the mechanism through which an independent variable exerts an influence on a dependent variable. Of the 169 mediators identified, the most frequently studied categories include Work–Family Interaction (23.1%), Stress (20.1%), Work Attitudes (13.0%), and Family/Nonwork Attitudes (8.9%). This represents a good mix of both family-related (e.g., family satisfaction and family stress) and work-related (job satisfaction and work stress) mediators. Notably, objective characteristics such as Background Characteristics (e.g., sex and age) and Organizational Characteristics (e.g., organizational setting, family-related benefits) are not relevant as mediators, and hence, it is not surprising they were not represented as such.

Table 6
Mediators examined in IO/OB WF research

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Work–family interaction	23.1
Work interfering with family	38.5
Family-interfering with work	30.8
Other work–nonwork interface variables	12.8
WFC (direction not noted)	10.3
Stress	20.1
Work stress	44.1
Family stress	35.3
General life stress	11.8
Work attitudes	13.0
Job satisfaction	59.1
Other work attitudes	13.6
Other organizational perceptions	13.6
Family/nonwork attitudes	08.9
Family satisfaction	26.7
Other family attitudes	20.0
Other nonwork attitudes	20.0
Life satisfaction	20.0
Health and wellness	08.3
General mental well-being	42.9
Work-related psychological wellness	35.7
Other health and wellness variables	14.3
Individual differences	07.1
Other individual differences and beliefs	66.7
Motivational traits	16.7
Job attributes	05.3
Schedule/hours	55.6
Characteristics of the job	44.4
Children and parenting variables	03.5
Other child variables	50.0
Parenting variables	50.0
Family characteristics	03.0
Family responsibility	100.0
Career attitudes	01.8
Career mobility attitudes	33.3
Career salience/involvement/identity	33.3
Other career attitudes	33.3
Nonwork support	01.8
Family	100.0
Employee behaviors	01.2
Other employee behaviors	50.0
Work effort	50.0

Table 6 (continued)

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Coping	00.6
Coping specific to work–nonwork interface	100.0
Spouse variables	00.6
Other spouse variables	100.0
Organizational support	01.8
Company/organization	66.7
Coworkers	33.3
Background characteristics	00.0
Organizational characteristics	00.0
Parent variables	00.0

^a Meta-themes appear in bold. Themes appear under their respective meta-theme in normal type.

^b Percentages in bold represent the percentage of mediators associated with each meta-theme based on $N = 169$. Percentages associated with each theme (in normal type) represent themes accounting for 10% or more of their respective meta-theme.

4.5. Variables studied in exploratory IO/OB research on WF

Exploratory studies comprise only 11% of studies reviewed yet 333 variables were classified from these studies. Table 7 presents information on the types of variables studied in this research. The most commonly studied variables were Background Characteristics (13.5%), Individual Differences (12.0%), Family/Nonwork Attitudes (11.7%), and Stress (11.7%), representing both work and family domain variables. Infrequently studied variables include Organizational Characteristics (1.5%), Coping (1.2%), Employee Behaviors (1.2%), Parent Variables (<1%) and Children and Parenting Variables (0%).

Like predictive research, exploratory studies often focused on objective characteristics such as work-related background characteristics, education-related variables, and demographic characteristics (see meta-theme of Background Characteristics). Likewise, both types of research often examine Stress. However, exploratory research was about twice as likely to examine Individual Differences compared to predictive research (compare Table 7 with Tables 4–6). In fact, Individual Differences were among the most frequently examined variables in exploratory studies. Specifically, motivational traits such as self-esteem, needs, values, and ambition were commonly explored, as were other individual differences.

5. Narrative review of the literature

Section 5.1 includes a review of the specific findings from the 190 studies included in this monograph. The review is organized by topical area, to include: (1) work–family conflict (WFC), (2) work role stress, (3) work–family assistance, (4) work

Table 7

Variables studied in exploratory IO/OB WF research

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Background characteristics	13.5
Work-related background characteristics	42.2
Education-related	24.4
Demographics	22.2
Individual differences	12.0
Motivational traits	62.5
Other individual differences and beliefs	17.5
Gender role orientation	15.0
Family/nonwork attitudes	11.7
Other nonwork attitudes	46.2
Family involvement/commitment	17.9
Other family attitudes	12.8
Family satisfaction	10.3
Marital attitudes	10.3
Stress	11.7
Family stress	56.4
Work stress	23.1
Role stress	15.4
Job Attributes	09.3
Job characteristics	87.1
Schedule/hours	12.9
Family characteristics	08.1
Family responsibility	55.6
Marital status and type	29.6
Work attitudes	07.5
Other organizational perceptions	32.0
Job satisfaction	24.0
Job/work involvement	20.0
Spouse variables	05.1
Spouse background characteristics	41.2
Spouse work attitudes	41.2
Spouse nonwork attitudes	17.6
Health and wellness	04.2
Work-related psychological wellness	50.0
General mental well-being	28.6
Other health and wellness variables	14.3
Nonwork support	03.9
Family	53.8
Community ties and support	30.8
Friends	15.4
Work–family interaction	03.6
Bi-directional work family conflict	50.0
Work interfering with family	16.7
Other work–nonwork interface variables	16.7

Table 7 (continued)

Meta-theme and themes ^a	% ^b
Career attitudes	02.1
Commitment	42.9
Career mobility attitudes	28.6
Other career attitudes	28.6
Organizational support	02.4
Coworkers	75.0
Management/supervisory	25.0
Organizational characteristics	01.5
Organizational setting	40.0
Family-related benefits	20.0
Organizational structure	20.0
Other HR practices and policies	20.0
Coping	01.2
Coping specific to work–nonwork interface	75.0
Coping strategies and coping behaviors	25.0
Employee behaviors	01.2
Other employee behaviors	50.0
Work effort	25.0
Work performance	25.0
Parent variables	00.9
Other parent variables	100.0
Child and parenting variables	00.0

^a Meta-themes appear in bold. Themes appear under their respective meta-theme in normal type.

^b Percentages in bold represent the percentage of mediators associated with each meta-theme based on $N = 333$. Percentages associated with each theme (in normal type) represent themes accounting for 10% or more of their respective meta-theme.

schedules, (5) job-related relocation, (6) career and job-related outcomes, (7) gender and the relationship between work and family domains, (8) dual-earner couples, and (9) relationships among life domains.

5.1. Work–family conflict

A primary area of IO/OB research has been the examination of the antecedents and consequences of WFC. Over the time period covered in this review the conceptualization of WFC has also changed. Early studies in the 1980s conceptualized it as a unidimensional construct (e.g., Bedeian, Burke, & Moffett, 1988; Cooke & Rousseau, 1984; Kopelman, Greenhaus, & Connolly, 1983). More recent research has studied work-to-family and family-to-work conflict as distinct facets of this more general construct (e.g., Frone, Russell, & Cooper, 1992a, 1992b; Kelloway, Gottlieb, & Barham, 1999; Williams & Alliger, 1994). In the following sections research is discussed in terms of whether it is oriented toward understanding the predictors of WFC, the consequences of WFC, or the examination of more complex relationships

between work and family variables with WFC acting as a mediating mechanism linking work and family domains.

5.1.1. Predictors of work–family conflict

5.1.1.1. Work domain predictors. Studies examining characteristics of the work domain as predictors of WFC have been the most plentiful. Eight studies found that WFC was related to having more conflict, pressure, and stress at work (Carlson, 1999; Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Fox & Dwyer, 1999; Greenhaus, Bedeian, & Mossholder, 1987; Greenhaus et al., 1987; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000; Shamir, 1983; Wallace, 1997). Research also suggests that unpredictability in work routine promotes WFC given that work variability (Fox & Dwyer, 1999) and working weekends or rotating shifts (Shamir, 1983) both relate to higher conflict. Those who are troubled by a sense of inequity in rewards at work (Greenhaus et al., 1987), experience abusive supervision (Tepper, 2000), or have a profit-driven focus (Wallace, 1997) also tend to report higher WFC. Being self-employed is also related to a range of work–family outcomes including greater parental demands, WFC, and job satisfaction, as well as lower family satisfaction (Parasurman & Simmers, 2001).

The research also suggests that high involvement and investment in work promotes WFC. Conflict is higher among those who work a greater number of hours or longer days (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Greenhaus et al., 1987; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000, women only; Nielson, Carlson, & Lankau, 2001; Shamir, 1983), report high job involvement (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Parasurman & Simmers, 2001; Tenbrunsel, Brett, Maoz, & Stroh, 1995), have greater work demands (Yang, Chen, Choi, & Zou, 2000, Chinese sample), display greater time commitment to work (Parasurman & Simmers, 2001, especially the self-employed), are high in intrinsic motivation and organizational loyalty (Tenbrunsel et al., 1995), or have greater autonomy at work (Parasurman & Simmers, 2001).

Finally, research suggests that a supportive organizational culture, supervisor, or mentor is generally beneficial in reducing WFC. Several studies have found that work support (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Greenhaus et al., 1987; Thompson, Beauvais, & Lyness, 1999), the availability of work–family benefits (Thompson et al., 1999), having a mentor (Nielson et al., 2001), receiving more role modeling and overall mentor support (Nielson et al., 2001), and having a mentor who is perceived as having similar work–family values (Nielson et al., 2001) are related to less WFC. Interestingly, those receiving more psychosocial mentoring reported greater family-to-work conflict, perhaps because those experiencing conflict sought out such support from their mentors (Nielson et al., 2001). Collective socialization during employee orientation also appears to promote a sense of support and help ameliorate WFC (Zahrly & Tosi, 1989) as does having a strong sense of community at work and greater perceived control at work (Clark, 2002). Clark (2002) also found that family sensitive supervision and work flexibility reduced WFC by increasing a sense of community and control on the job. Finally, perceiving social value to one's work and having access to promotional opportunities relates to lower WFC (Wallace, 1997).

5.1.1.2. Family domain predictors. Numerous studies have examined characteristics of the family domain as predictors of WFC. These studies have found that WFC is higher among those who have children at home (Behson, 2002a, family-to-work conflict; Carlson, 1999; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000), are concerned or troubled about child care (Buffardi & Erdwins, 1997; Fox & Dwyer, 1999), have disagreements, tension or stress with their family or spouse (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Fox & Dwyer, 1999; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000; Williams & Alliger, 1994), are highly involved in family (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Parasurman & Simmers, 2001, organizationally employed only; Williams & Alliger, 1994), have greater time demands from family (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Parasurman & Simmers, 2001, self-employed only; Yang et al., 2000), and have less family support (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000).

5.1.1.3. Individual differences. Finally, several studies have examined how individual differences relate to WFC. Workers who are higher self-monitors (Zahrly & Tosi, 1989), exhibit more Type A tendencies (Carlson, 1999; behavior-based WFC), and have less negative affect (Carlson, 1999, time-, strain-, and behavior-based WFC; Stoeva, Chiu, & Greenhaus, 2002) tend to report less WFC. Further, Stoeva et al. (2002) found that job stress mediates the positive relationship between negative affectivity and work-to-family conflict whereas family stress mediates the relationship between negative affect and family-to-work conflict. In terms of the big 5 personality dimensions, Grzywacz and Marks (2000) found that neuroticism related positively to both work-to-family and family-to-work conflict and extraversion related negatively to work-to-family conflict. Attachment style has also been linked to negative spillover from work to home, negative spillover from home to work, positive spillover from home to work, positive spillover from work to home, and segmentation of work and family (Sumer & Knight, 2001). Generally speaking, those with preoccupied attachment styles tend to report greater negative spillover and less segmentation whereas securely attached individuals report greater positive spillover. At the cultural level, Yang et al. (2000) found that American employees reported greater family demands than Chinese employee, and family demands had a greater effect on WFC among Americans whereas work demands had a greater effect on WFC among Chinese workers.

5.1.2. Consequences of work–family conflict

5.1.2.1. Physical and psychological health outcomes. Two studies examined the link between WFC and physical health outcomes. Schmidt, Colligan, and Fitzgerald (1980) found that WFC related to more physical health symptoms. In addition, Frone et al. (1997) found that work-to-family conflict predicted greater depression, physical health complaints, and hypertension whereas family-to-work conflict predicted greater alcohol consumption.

Several other studies found links between WFC and mental health outcomes. Burke and Greenglass (1999) found that WFC related to greater psychological distress whereas Frone (2000) found that both family-to-work conflict and work-to-

family conflict positively related to anxiety disorders, mood disorders, and substance abuse disorders. Moreover, the relationship between family-to-work conflict and anxiety disorders was stronger among men than women (Frone, 2000). Other studies link WFC to greater stress (Kelloway et al., 1999; Parasurman & Simmers, 2001) and four studies linked it to lower life satisfaction (Bedeian et al., 1988; Parasuraman, Greenhaus, & Granrose, 1992; Perrewe, Hochwarter, & Kiewitz, 1999; Rice, Frone, & McFarlin, 1992).

5.1.2.2. Work consequences. Several studies suggest that WFC may have consequences for the organization. For instance, several studies found that WFC related to lower job satisfaction (Bedeian et al., 1988; Bruck, Allen, & Spector, 2002, both global and composite job satisfaction; Burke & Greenglass, 1999; Parasurman & Simmers, 2001; Perrewe et al., 1999; Rice et al., 1992; Wiley, 1987). Bruck et al. (2002) further found that both behavior-based work interfering with family and behavior-based family interfering with work added unique variance to the prediction of global and composite job satisfaction, over and above strain- and time-based conflict. WFC is also related to greater turnover intentions (Greenhaus, Parasuraman, & Collins, 2001, work-to-family conflict only; Kelloway et al., 1999), lower perceived career success (Peluchette, 1993), and less career satisfaction (Martins, Eddleston, & Veiga, 2002; Parasurman & Simmers, 2001, organizationally employed only).

Other research finds that those with higher WFC report greater job involvement and affective organizational commitment (Wiley, 1987). Along these same lines, Greenhaus et al. (2001) found that the relationship between work-to-family conflict and both turnover intentions and actual turnover is weaker among those less involved in their careers. Unexpectedly, career satisfaction moderated the relationship between family-to-work conflict and turnover intentions. Among those low in career involvement, a weak positive relationship was found between family-to-work conflict and turnover intentions whereas the opposite effect was found among those high in career involvement. Gender, age, and gender minority status also influences the relationship between WFC and career satisfaction. Specifically, work-to-family spillover related negatively to career satisfaction among young (under 33) and middle aged (33–39) women but no relationship was found for men in these age groups. However, spillover and career satisfaction were negatively related among both men and women who were 40 or older (Martins et al., 2002). In addition, the negative relationship between career satisfaction and spillover was stronger among those who were the minority gender in their work group.

5.1.2.3. Family consequences. Finally, several studies suggest that WFC related to lower family satisfaction. However, some research finds this effect for both men and women (Bedeian et al., 1988), whereas other studies suggest that only women are affected (Parasuraman et al., 1992).

5.1.3. Work–family conflict as a mediator

A final group of studies examined WFC as a mediator of the relationship between job and family variables and outcomes. Some of these studies confirm the relation-

ships discussed previously with respect to predictors and consequences of WFC. However, because these studies consider WFC as a linking mechanism between work and family domains their findings are discussed here. Some studies have examined overall WFC as a mediating variable whereas others have conceptualized both work-to-family and family-to-work conflict as mediators.

5.1.3.1. Overall work–family conflict. Seven studies examined general WFC as a mediator variable. Kopelman et al. (1983) found that work–family conflict mediated the relationships between both work conflict and family conflict with life satisfaction. Specifically, conflict in both work and family domains led to higher levels of WFC, and this WFC related to lower life satisfaction. Cooke and Rousseau (1984) also found that WFC was an important mediator variable. Their research demonstrated that workers with greater work expectations and those who held a greater number of family roles (spouse and/or parent) reported more WFC. In turn, WFC related to higher levels of job dissatisfaction and more physical health problems. Furthermore, Bacharach, Bamberger, and Conley (1991) found that WFC mediated the relationships between both role overload and role conflict with job burnout. Workers with higher levels of role overload and role conflict reported more WFC, and WFC related to higher rates of job burnout.

WFC has also been found to mediate the relationships between work expectations, work conflict, job involvement, and family involvement with both quality of work and quality of family life (Higgins, Duxbury, & Irving, 1992). Specifically, workers who reported higher work expectations, greater work conflict, and higher involvement in both job and family domains had higher WFC. Work–family conflict, in turn, predicted reduced levels of both quality of work life and quality of family life. Further, Thomas and Ganster (1995) found that supervisor support reduced WFC among health care workers, which in turn led to greater job satisfaction, less depression, fewer somatic complaints and lower cholesterol levels. Examining a sample of public accountants, Greenhaus, Collins, Singh, and Parasuraman (1997) found that WFC mediated the relationship between work overload and family overload with personal and work outcomes. In particular, they found that accountants who reported greater work and family overload reported more WFC, and that high WFC led to greater stress and intentions to leave public accounting. Moreover, those that reported higher WFC exhibited higher actual turnover from public accounting at a later date.

5.1.3.2. Work-to-family and family-to-work conflict. Finally, the last set of studies explored the mediating effects of the more specific facets of work-to-family and family-to-work conflict with outcomes. Two studies (Major, Klein, & Ehrhart, 2002; O'Driscoll, Ilgen, & Hildreth, 1992) found that work-to-family conflict mediated the relationship between job time demands and psychological strain outcomes such that higher job demands led to greater work interference with family, which the predicted greater psychological strain. O'Driscoll et al. (1992) also found that family-to-work conflict mediated the relationship between off-job demands and psychological strain such that greater off-job demands related to increased family-to-work conflict, which

in turn, predicted to higher psychological strain. Extending these findings, Parasuraman, Purohit, Godshalk, and Beutell (1996) found that workers that spent more time at work, reported more work overload, reported greater parental demands, reported less family involvement, and spent less time in family activities reported higher work-to-family conflict. Work-to-family conflict, in turn, was related to increased life stress. In addition, these authors found that workers with higher job involvement, less job autonomy, and less emotional support reported more family-to-work conflict. Family-to-work conflict, in turn, related to greater life stress and lower career satisfaction.

Similarly, Adams, King, and King (1996) found that the effects of job involvement on both job and life satisfaction were mediated by work-to-family conflict. Adams and Jex (1999) found that both work-to-family and family-to-work-conflict mediated the effects of time management strategies on health, and family-to work-conflict also mediated the effects of time management strategies on job satisfaction. Specifically, those workers who set more priorities and those that reported less of a preference for organization reported greater work-to-family conflict. Greater work-to-family conflict, in turn, related to greater health complaints. With respect to work-to-family conflict as a mediating variable, results indicate that when workers set more priorities, engaged in fewer of the mechanics of time management, and had a greater preference for organization, they also reported greater perceived control, and that perceived control led to lower family-to-work conflict. Family-to-work conflict, in turn, related negatively to job satisfaction and health.

Longitudinal research has also supported the mediating role of work-to-family and family-to-work conflict. More specifically, Grandey and Cropanzano (1999) found that workers who were younger, had shorter organizational tenures, and experienced more work role stress reported greater work-to-family conflict. Work-to-family conflict related to job distress five months later, and job distress increased workers' turnover intentions, life distress and physical health complaints. Furthermore, having children at home and greater family role stress related to increased family-to-work conflict. Family-to-work conflict related positively to family distress five months later.

Several studies conducted by Frone and colleagues have also examined how work-to-family conflict and family-to-work conflict function as mediators of the relationship between the work and family environment with work and family domain outcomes. Frone et al. (1992a) found that family-to-work conflict mediated the relationship between family stress and depression. Specifically, family stress led to higher family-to-work conflict, and workers with higher family-to-work conflict reported more depression. Moreover, Frone et al. (1997) found that the effects of family time commitment, family distress, and family overload on work performance were mediated by family-to-work conflict. Specific findings indicated that workers with greater family time commitments, higher family distress, and greater family overload reported more family-to-work conflict. Those who reported more family-to-work conflict, in turn, exhibited poorer job performance. Similarly, they also found that work-to-family conflict mediated the relationships of work time commitments, work distress, and work overload with family performance. That is, workers with greater

work time commitments, higher work distress, and greater work overload reported greater work-to-family conflict. Workers with high levels of work-to-family conflict, in turn, exhibited lower performance in the family domain.

Aryee and colleagues conducted several studies which examined work-to-family and family-to-work conflict as mediating variables among a sample of parents in Hong Kong. Aryee, Luk, Leung, and Lo (1999) found that parental overload lead to family-to-work conflict which in turn lowered both job and life satisfaction. Aryee, Fields, and Luk (1999) examined the cross-cultural generalizability of the model developed by Frone et al. (1992a). An important difference was found; work-to-family conflict mediated the relationship between job conflict and life satisfaction among Chinese workers such that job conflict led to higher work-to-family conflict which, in turn, lowered life satisfaction. In contrast, family-to-work conflict was the key mediator between family stress and depression among American workers, such that family stress led to higher family-to-work conflict, and this conflict, in turn, led to more depression (Frone et al., 1992a).

Carlson and Kacmar (2000) also took the perspective that work domain predictors influence work interfering with family while family domain predictors influence family interfering with work, which in turn influence family and work outcomes. However, they added to the literature by examining the moderating role of life role values on these relationships. Their findings highlight the importance of considering family and work values. Significant differences were found between those with low versus high work role values as well as between individuals placing more or less importance on work and family roles. For those who place more value on the family role compared to the work role, greater time and involvement at work negatively impacts job satisfaction. In contrast, if work is more salient than family, family sources of conflict have a greater impact on outcomes. In terms of life role importance, the relationship between family role conflict and family interfering with work, as well as job involvement and job satisfaction, was stronger among those with a high value on work and a low value on family, compared to individuals who highly value both work and family. Likewise, for those who highly value both work and family, work role conflict has a stronger effect on job satisfaction and job involvement has a stronger effect on life satisfaction, compared to those who do not value both domains. Finally, a stronger relationship was found between work stress and job satisfaction among those with low work and high family values compared to those with low work and low family values.

Building on recent interest in organizational support and WFC, Anderson, Coffey, and Byerly (2002) developed and tested a model of the relationship between various aspects of support, family structure, two forms of WFC, and employee outcomes. The authors found that less schedule flexibility, lower managerial support, and the perception that family has negative career consequences predicted work-to-family conflict. In turn, greater work-to-family conflict related to lower job satisfaction, stronger turnover intentions, and greater stress. Family-to-work conflict was predicted by family responsibilities, which in turn related to higher stress and greater absenteeism. Although not predicted, managerial support had a direct relationship with all employee outcomes and negative career consequences was directly related

to lower job satisfaction and higher turnover intentions. Other direct effects included a link between schedule flexibility and job satisfaction, dependent care benefits and turnover intentions, and family structure and absenteeism.

5.2. *Work role stress*

Consistent with the idea of work–family spillover (i.e., work and family influence one another), a variety of studies have examined the relationship between work role stress and family functioning. This includes research on the effect of job stress on the family, studies of work–family fit, and research examining both employee and spouse stress.

5.2.1. *Effect of job stress on the family*

Job stress, conceptualized in terms of burnout (Jackson & Maslach, 1982), stressful job characteristics (Barling & Macewen, 1992; Doby & Caplan, 1995; Hughes & Galinsky, 1994; Jackson, Zedeck, & Summers, 1985), and emotional reactions to one's job (Barling, Dupre, & Hepburn, 1998; Barling & Macewen, 1992; Jackson et al., 1985) has been linked to various indicators of marital and family functioning. For example, Jackson and Maslach (1982) found a relationship between husband burnout and the quality of family life as reported by both police officers and their spouses. In particular, as emotional exhaustion and depersonalization increased so did reports of husband hostility and withdrawal from family activities. In addition, while the types of coping strategies used to deal with stress differed somewhat between husbands and wives, the use of strategies by both husbands and wives related to greater husband involvement in the family, less display of anger, less negative attitudes toward work, and less absence from the home.

Various aspects of an employee's job can also negatively impact family relations such as satisfaction with job–family congruence, quality of family life, marital tension, marital functioning, and anxiety and mood at home. This includes working in less enriching jobs (Hughes & Galinsky, 1994), spending extended time at work (Hughes & Galinsky, 1994), working in high pressure jobs with little supervisor support (Hughes & Galinsky, 1994), experiencing greater role overload, conflict, or ambiguity at work (Barling & Macewen, 1992; Doby & Caplan, 1995), not receiving adequate feedback (Doby & Caplan, 1995), being concerned about one's job security (Barling & Macewen, 1992), not having adequate training at work (Doby & Caplan, 1995), working a different schedule than one's spouse (Jackson et al., 1985), and having a longer commute time (Jackson et al., 1985).

Several studies have also found moderating and mediating effects on the relationship between job stress and family functioning. Specifically, lack of household help and having a child under the age of 13 moderated some of the relationships between job characteristics and family functioning in the Hughes and Galinsky (1994) study. More specifically, spending extended time at work was more highly related to negative mood at home and marital tension if little household help was provided by the spouse. Also, working in a flexible job decreased marital tension and increased marital support more sharply if there was a young child living at home. In terms of

mediation, Barling and Macewen (1992) found that the job stressors of ambiguity, conflict, and job insecurity had a negative effect on three dimensions of marital functioning (sexual satisfaction, psychological aggression, and general marital satisfaction) by decreasing one's concentration and increasing depression. In addition, depression mediated the negative relationship between job dissatisfaction and marital functioning.

Further supporting the idea of spillover effects of stress between home and work domains, Doby and Caplan (1995) found that reports of home and work anxiety were highly correlated. Crossover effects of job stress on family outcomes have also been found between spouses (Jackson & Maslach, 1982; Jackson et al., 1985) as well as between parents and their children (Barling et al., 1998). The Barling et al. (1998) study is unique in that it focused on how parental job stress related to children's work attitudes and beliefs. They found that both parents' perceptions of job insecurity and the number of layoffs experienced by the father influenced children's perceptions of both mother's and father's job insecurity. However, only the perception of the father's job insecurity predicted children's own work beliefs and attitudes; mother's job insecurity was unrelated to children's attitudes.

5.2.2. *Work–family fit*

Two studies examined work–family fit in relation to job stress. Barnett, Gareis, and Brennan (1999) examined how the number of hours worked by 141 married physicians related to burnout, and the mediating role that fit played in understanding this relationship. Viewing it as a family adaptive strategy, Barnett et al. (1999) discuss fit as the extent to which employees' and spouses' work schedules meet their own needs as well as the needs of other family members. Fit was a partial mediator of the work hours–burnout relationship, suggesting that working fewer hours facilitates perceptions of fit, which in turn decreases burnout. In addition, working more hours exerted a direct positive effect on burnout.

Edwards and Rothbard (1999) also examined the relationship between work and family stress and well-being using person–environment fit as an organizing framework. These authors proposed a relationship between the extent to which one's values related to work and family are met by their environment (i.e., the extent to which there is fit) and experienced stress in work and family domains. Four specific values were examined in relation to work and family well-being: autonomy, relationships, security, and segmentation. Edwards and Rothbard (1999) found that well-being increased as supplies associated with autonomy, relationships, and security increased toward their respective values (i.e., fit increased) and continued to increase as supplies exceeded values. However, the positive effect of excess supplies only existed to a certain point for autonomy and relationships. When either autonomy or relationship supplies greatly exceeded values, well-being began to decrease, suggesting that there is a point where excess autonomy or excess relationships can be detrimental to well-being. A different pattern of effects was found for segmentation. Well-being increased as supplies increased toward values, but there was a decrease in well-being with excessive supplies for segmentation. In other words, when individuals were able to keep work and family domains more separate than they desired,

well-being actually suffered. Further, the nature of the fit was important; well-being tended to be higher when both supplies and values were high rather than when both were low. It is also noteworthy that fit was more strongly associated with domain-specific well-being than overall well-being or well-being associated with the other domain for all values except segmentation. For example, work autonomy fit related more strongly to work satisfaction than either overall well-being (e.g., anxiety and depression) or family satisfaction. Finally, there was also some support for the moderating effect of domain centrality on the relationship between fit and well-being. For instance, the association between relationship fit and well-being became stronger as individuals reported more family centrality.

5.2.3. Employee and spouse stress

A final set of studies examined occupational stress among both employees and spouses. Beehr, Johnson, Nieva, and Hurrell (1995) studied the use of coping strategies to deal with both work (e.g., assignment satisfaction) and non-work (e.g., divorce potential) strain among 177 police officers and their spouses. Emotion-focused coping (e.g., putting the situation in perspective) was effective in reducing many of the strains reported by police officers, whereas problem-focused coping (e.g., making a plan of action and following it) and religiosity (e.g., praying or meditating) were not. Interestingly, the use of rugged individualism (e.g., making sure no one pushes you around) as a coping mechanism actually increased reported strains among officers. A different pattern of effects emerged for spouses. Religiosity, as well as both problem-focused and emotion-focused coping, was related to less reported strain among spouses, whereas rugged individualism was unrelated to reported strains. Finally, while officers' use of religiosity was not related to their own report of strains, it did predict their spouses' strain. This suggests that police officers use of religion as a coping strategy may be beneficial for their spouses.

Crossover effects of burnout between partners were also examined by Westman and Etzion (1995). Support was found for the prediction that husbands' burnout would relate positively to wives' burnout and vice versa. A sense of control over one's life, self-reported job stress (for females), and work support (for males) also related to burnout. Interestingly, family support was not predictive of burnout for either males or females.

5.3. Work–family assistance

Another area of IO/OB work–family research has examined organizations' interests in helping employees manage work and family responsibilities. These studies can be classified into three primary areas: dependent care, work-at-home programs, and organizational responsiveness to work–family issues.

5.3.1. Dependant childcare

Four studies examined issues relevant to on-site childcare. This research revealed that both satisfaction with on-site childcare and supervisor support were related to lower work–family conflict among working parents (Goff, Mount, & Jamison, 1990).

In addition, users of on-site childcare reported fewer problems with childcare and more favorable attitudes about their ability to manage their childcare responsibilities than non-users of onsite childcare (Kossek & Nichol, 1992). Users of on-site childcare also more strongly believed that such assistance had positive effects on recruiting and retention efforts and were more satisfied with the organization's support for dependent care than non-users (Rothausen, Gonzalez, Clarke, & O'Dell, 1998). Interestingly, research has consistently failed to find a direct relationship between the use of on-site childcare and absenteeism (Goff et al., 1990; Kossek & Nichol, 1992). However the use of on-site care related to lower work–family conflict, which in turn predicted lower absenteeism (Goff et al., 1990). Absences were also predicted by having more negative attitudes about the ability to manage work and family responsibilities (Kossek, 1990), lack of family help for childcare, and being female (Kossek & Nichol, 1992).

Problems with childcare have also been examined and findings indicate that greater problems are associated with the use of non-family care (Kossek, 1990; Kossek & Nichol, 1992) and not having other childcare resources in the event of a sick child (Kossek & Nichol, 1992). In turn, problems with childcare related to less favorable attitudes about the ability to manage one's childcare and work responsibilities (Kossek, 1990; Kossek & Nichol, 1992) and such attitudes were significantly less favorable among women than men (Kossek, 1990). Moreover, Kossek (1990) demonstrated that there are significant differences in preferred childcare assistance (e.g., job share/part time work, voucher system, family daycare network) as a function of various family structure and sociodemographic variables.

Two recent studies examined eldercare issues. Lee, Walker, and Shoup (2001) found that the dual role of being a caregiver and being employed related to more depressive symptoms than occupying just one of these roles. They also found that emotional health declined as employed caregivers became more involved in their caregiving role and that women were particularly susceptible to the negative effects of caregiving. A second study by Kossek, Colquitt, and Noe (2001) found that decisions about the place (home versus non-home) and provider (family versus non-family) of dependent care, type of dependent care (children versus elder), and climate both at work and at home related to a variety of work and family outcomes. In terms of family outcomes, higher family-to-work conflict and lower well-being existed when the family climate encouraged making sacrifices at work for family. In addition, family performance was lowest in situations where home care was provided to an elder by a family member. However, home or family care decisions were less likely to result in detrimental outcomes (i.e., work-to-family conflict and reduced well-being) when the climate in the family encouraged sharing concerns about work. When the family climate for sharing work concerns was less favorable, and family-based home care was used for an elder, well-being and work performance were especially low. Unexpectedly, low levels of both work and family performance were found with a combination of home-based family care, elderly dependents, and a low (rather than high) climate for making sacrifices. Work climate also mattered. Work climates that encouraged sharing family concerns related to enhanced work performance and well-being whereas work climates that favored making family sacrifices enhanced WFC and decreased both well-being and family performance.

5.3.2. *Work-at-home programs*

Two studies examined work–family variables in relation to work-at-home programs. Duxbury, Higgins, and Thomas (1996) compared users and non-users of computer supported supplemental work-at-home (i.e., where work at home augments, not replaces work at the office). Differences were found in the work, but not family, environment of users and non-users. Parent users reported greater task variety, job involvement, and work expectations and less role clarity than non-users. Childless users also reported greater task variety, but also lower job satisfaction and higher work conflict than their non-computer user counterparts. Further, users were more likely to report high role overload, greater stress, and more work–family interference than non-users.

In a second study, Hartman, Stoner, and Arora (1991) investigated predictors of telecommuting productivity and satisfaction. Self-reported productivity and telecommuting satisfaction related positively to favorable attitudes toward the capacity of the performance evaluation system to evaluate work done at home. Moreover, satisfaction with telecommuting related to the receipt of technical and emotional support from one's supervisor while working at home and less family disruption. Counter to expectations, more time spent telecommuting related to lower productivity. In addition, telecommuters reported greater satisfaction and higher productivity when employed in government agencies compared to business firms. Finally, telecommuters employed full-time rather than part-time, and those in employee-initiated or mutually-initiated rather than supervisor initiated telecommuting arrangements, reported higher productivity.

5.3.3. *Organizational responsiveness to work–family issues*

Several studies have examined the factors associated with organizations' decisions to adopt work–family policies and programs. Research indicates that industry factors (i.e., organizations in industries where work–family benefits are more common, industries where female unemployment is lower, being in the healthcare or financial services industry), structural factors (i.e., larger organizations, greater proportion of female employees), employer beliefs (i.e., greater expected benefits, greater knowledge about services, issue salience among executives), and employee involvement all relate to an organization's responsiveness to work–family issues (Goodstein, 1994; Milliken, Martins, & Morgan, 1998). Milliken et al. (1998) also found that companies in the Northeast and West/Northwest were somewhat more likely to offer flexible work options and that companies in the Midwest tended to offer more financial WF benefits. It was also interesting that different profiles of predictors related to the adoption of various strategies to deal with work–family issues such as acquiescence or avoidance strategies (Goodstein, 1994). In terms of eldercare assistance, Goodstein (1995) found that more exposure to other organizations that are responsive to work–family issues and organizations with a larger percentage of female employees reported providing greater support for eldercare. There is also some initial evidence that companies that offer more work–family practices have higher organizational performance (Perry-Smith & Blum, 2000). In addition, the relationship between the provision of work–family practices and

profit-sales was stronger for older firms and for firms employing a greater proportion of women.

Another line of research has examined work-life benefits and general organizational support for work and family issues. Honeycutt and Rosen (1997) examined work-family responsiveness from the perspective of the applicant. Findings indicated that organizations were perceived by all participants as particularly attractive places to work if they offered flexible career paths and policies. Moreover, individuals with a salient family identity were more attracted to companies with flexible options whereas those with comparable family and career identities were attracted to organizations offering either flexible options or dual-career paths and policies. This suggests some work-life benefits are universally appealing to all applicants. In another study, Lambert (2000) examined the relationship between benefit usefulness and organizational citizenship, finding it to be positively related to citizenship behaviors at both the individual (e.g., helping) and organizational (e.g., submitting suggestions) levels. In addition, benefit usefulness was related to stronger perceptions of organizational support. Parker and Allen (2001) also examined employees' reactions by focusing on the predictors of perceived fairness of work-family benefits. They found that women viewed work-family benefits more favorably than did men and that, counter to expectation, those working in jobs that were highly interdependent with others' jobs also perceived such benefits as more fair. Exploratory analyses also indicated that employees with younger children perceived work-family benefits more favorably than those with older children.

Several studies examined how perceptions of organizational support for work and family relate to employee outcomes. Allen (2001) operationalized organizational support as a unidimensional construct reflecting assumptions and experiences related to work and family within their organization. In contrast, Clark (2001) examined three distinct aspects of organizational support: temporal flexibility, operational flexibility, and supportive supervision. Perceptions of organizational support related to enhanced job satisfaction (Allen, 2001; Clark, 2001), lower WFC (Allen, 2001), higher organizational commitment (Allen, 2001), lower turnover intentions (Allen, 2001), higher work functioning (Clark, 2001), and greater family functioning (Clark, 2001). In addition, both supportive supervision and organizational support related to having more benefits available in the organization and greater benefit usage (Allen, 2001). Supportive supervision also related positively to perceived organizational support and support perceptions mediated the relationship between both benefit availability and employee outcomes (i.e., WFC, job satisfaction, and commitment) as well as supervisory support and employee outcomes (i.e., full mediation for WFC; partial mediation for job satisfaction, commitment, turnover intentions) (Allen, 2001). Several interactions were also noted by Clark (2001). Counter to expectation, employees with no or one dependent reported a more positive relationship between supervisory support and both home satisfaction and family functioning than those with more than one dependent. Likewise, supportive supervision and family well-being were not related for those in dual-career marriages, whereas there was a positive relationship for employees in single-earner marriages.

In an effort to disentangle the relative importance of various sources of support in the workplace, Behson (2002b) compared perceived organizational support, fair interpersonal treatment at work, trust in management, work–family culture, and family supportive organizational perceptions as predictors of work attitudes and WFC. Findings indicated that job satisfaction and commitment were better predicted by perceived organizational support, fair treatment, and trust in management whereas work-to-family (but not family-to-work) conflict was best predicted by work–family culture and family supportive perceptions. Behson (2002b) also found some gender and parental status differences in the relative importance of these sources of support. A second study by Behson (2002a) examined informal work accommodations for family (e.g., rearranging work schedule, taking work home, bringing kids to work) in relation to family-to-work conflict. Findings indicate that informal work accommodations were used more by individuals experiencing more family-to-work conflict, those seeking social support, and by employees who had more control over their work schedules. Also as expected, greater use of informal work accommodations related to the less reliance on emotion-focused coping strategies. In addition, women and those with responsibilities for dependents reported greater family-to-work conflict, which in turn led them to use more informal work accommodations for family. Finally, greater use of informal accommodations at work lessened the negative effect of family-to-work conflict on work stress.

5.4. Work schedules

Several studies examined the influence of work schedules on family life. Staines and Pleck (1984) utilized data from the 1977 Quality of Employment Survey to examine how various types of work schedules relate to the quality of family life. Compared to individuals working a regular schedule of days, those working nonstandard workdays (e.g., weekend work) reported less time spent with children and in housework. They also expressed greater complaints about excessive work-to-family conflict and schedule-based work–family conflict. Those working jobs requiring work on variable days reported spending less time with children, greater schedule-based work–family conflict, and lower family adjustment. Nonstandard shift work also related to the quality of family life. Specifically, shift workers spent more time on housework than those working regular schedules, yet also reported greater overall work–family conflict, and for some types of shifts, greater hours-based and schedule-based work–family conflict. In a follow-up study using the same database, Staines and Pleck (1986) found that the negative effect of nonstandard work schedules on family life was moderated by schedule flexibility. Under conditions of high schedule flexibility nonstandard work schedules did not have the negative effect on family life that they did when schedule flexibility was low. Further, this moderating effect was most pronounced for individuals working shifts rather than those with nonstandard workday patterns. Staines and Pleck (1986) also found a three-way interaction between nonstandard schedules, schedule flexibility, and sex such that the buffering effect of schedule flexibility on the relationship between work schedule and the quality of family life was more pronounced for women compared to men.

In another study of shift work Jamal and Jamal (1982) compared individuals on rotating versus variable shifts, arguing that the predictability of shift work is important since it allows an individual to establish a routine for work and family life. No significant differences in time spent with family or nonwork satisfaction were found between manufacturing employees working rotating versus variable shifts. In contrast, nurses working fixed shifts spent more leisure time with family than those on rotating shifts. Further, nurses working fixed shifts from rural areas and those with greater seniority spent more time with family than those on fixed or rotating shifts working in urban areas or with less seniority, respectively.

Several studies explored the effects of compressed workweeks, flextime, and reduced-load work arrangements. Rau and Hyland (2002) found that organizations offering flextime were particularly attractive to those currently experiencing high levels of either work-to-family conflict, family-to-work conflict, or work-to-school conflict. In contrast, while individuals with low role conflict were more attracted to telecommuting, those with high role conflict showed no preference for telecommuting over a normal work arrangement. Dunham, Pierce, and Castañeda (1987) used a quasi-experimental pre-test/post-test control group design with two different samples to examine if pre-test family-related attitudes could reliably predict post-test reactions to the schedule change and whether changes to work schedules affected work interfering with family. The first sample involved the change from a 5 day/40 h workweek to a 4 day/40 h (compressed) workweek among county health department employees. The second sample involved the change from a traditional work week to flextime among supervisory and non-supervisory utility employees. Results from the first sample indicated that pre-test family attitudes about the schedule change were predictive of the same post-test family attitudes. Further, in both studies the change in schedule was associated with decreases in reported work-to-family conflict.

Similar benefits of flextime were found by Ralston (1989) in a study of employees in two state government agencies. Specifically, individuals using flextime were better able to coordinate on- and off-the-job responsibilities than those not using flextime. Likewise, Pierce and Dunham (1992) provided additional support for the utility of compressed workweeks in a longitudinal study of police officers' reactions to a change from rotating 8-h shifts to a compressed workweek. Results revealed less schedule-related interference with family and friends and more positive attitudes about the effect of the work schedule on family and social life after the introduction of the compressed workweek.

A final study by Lee, MacDermid, Williams, Buck, and Leiba-O'Sullivan (2002) explored factors related to the success of reduced-load work arrangements among managers and professionals. Individuals using these work arrangements reported being happier and more satisfied with their work–family balance, greater well-being, and perceived that it positively impacted their relationship with children. Generally speaking reduced work arrangements were not viewed as having a negative effect on one's career, although professionals were more likely to mention stifled career opportunities and working more than they had contracted for. Senior managers, co-workers and direct reports who worked with individuals using reduced-load arrangements also held generally favorable attitudes toward such arrangements,

although co-workers voiced concerns about covering for colleagues and worry that colleagues were doing the same amount of work but being paid less. Finally, several contextual factors related to the successful use of these work arrangements including senior management support, a supportive organizational culture, the presence of formal HR policies related to reduced work arrangements, and assistance from HR staff in the implementation and use of such arrangements.

5.5. Job-related relocation

5.5.1. Domestic relocation

Several studies explored family-related variables in relation to domestic relocation, with the expectation that geographic mobility has a negative influence on marital and family functioning. Brett (1982) compared a geographically mobile sample of male managers and their families to a less mobile comparison sample. While there were many non-significant findings, Brett (1982) found that mobile teenagers had more physical health problems, mobile boys displayed less task persistence, and mobile girls had more frequent behavior problems than their less mobile counterparts. Mobility also had some negative effects on children's friendships, particularly with respect to the quality of peer relationships, ease of making friends, and post-move social adjustment. Moreover, some of these effects were more pronounced for older teenagers, compared to younger children (age 6–14). Finally, counter to expectations mobile employees and their wives reported *higher* marital and family satisfaction than the less mobile sample. In another study Munton (1990) examined relocation-related stress among white-collar British employees, finding that those families experiencing greater stress due to moving had a spouse who needed to find employment after the move. This group also reported greater stress related to their children's loss of social relationships and educational disruption. Further, individuals reporting high stress were more likely than those reporting low stress to report employee and spouse loss of social ties, disruption to family/home, and problems with spouse employment.

Several studies also examined concerns related to spouse employment. Eby, DeMatteo, and Russell (1997) explored the importance of both job-related (e.g., resume assistance and networking) and counseling-related (e.g., opportunity to meet other relocated spouses) spouse employment assistance among relocated dual-income couples. They found that interest in job-related spouse employment assistance was stronger for spouses with lower job-seeking self-efficacy whereas interest in counseling-related assistance was stronger for women. In addition, both types of assistance were perceived more favorably among spouses who had not yet secured employment. Another study by Eby and colleagues examined managers' reactions to an assessment center in-basket memo requesting spouse employment assistance (Eby, Douthitt, Noble, Atchley, & Ladd, 2002). Findings indicate that managers offer more extensive relocation assistance to female employees with male spouses, presumably due to concerns about husbands' resistance to moving for their wives' jobs. They also found that while managers respond in a variety of ways to requests for spouse employment assistance, the most typical response was to authorize a specific action such

as copying the spouse's resume or paying for additional job hunting trips to the area, followed by delegating the issue to human resources or others in the organization. A final study examined the career experiences of working spouses who relocated for their partners' careers (Eby, 2001). Findings indicated that while spouses found new jobs that were comparable to their previous ones in terms of intrinsic job characteristics (e.g., challenge, learning) new jobs tended to offer lower extrinsic rewards (e.g., pay and promotion). In addition, the quality of spouses' new jobs related positively to human capital variables (e.g., education level and skill demand), family power, role variables (e.g., higher quality jobs among male spouses and with fewer moves for the spouse), and job search self-efficacy.

Three studies examined family-related predictors of employee willingness to relocate. Counter to prediction, all three studies found that family status (e.g., number of children, family stage) was not related to willingness to relocate (Brett, Stroh, & Reilly, 1993; Gould & Penley, 1985; Noe & Barber, 1993). However, spouse willingness to relocate was a strong predictor of employee willingness to move (Brett et al., 1993) and mixed results were found with respect to spouse work status. Gould and Penley (1985) found greater willingness to relocate among individuals with working spouses whereas Noe and Barber (1993) found no relationship between the percent of income contributed by the employee and willingness to relocate to either a similar or dissimilar community. A final family variable linked to relocation willingness is the number of relatives in the community, which negatively related to willingness to relocate to a similar community (Noe & Barber, 1993).

Eby, Allen, and Douthitt (1999) took a different perspective on job-related relocation by examining the relationship between gender, marital type (single-earner, dual-earner), and parental status on access to relocation opportunities. The results of a field study (Study 1) indicated that married women and employees in dual-career marriages were offered fewer relocation opportunities than married men or those in single-earner marriages. A follow-up laboratory study (Study 2) found that these two groups (married women and dual-earner employees) were expected to have more family resistance to a pending move and more difficulty adjusting to relocation, providing a possible explanation for the findings from Study 1.

5.5.2. International relocation

Five studies examined family-related variables in the context of international relocation. Shaffer and Harrison (1998) surveyed expatriate employees and a sub-sample of expatriate couples. They found that family-related variables were predictive of expatriate attitudes as well as employee and spouse cognitions about withdrawing from an international assignment. In particular, both expatriates and spouses reported weaker withdrawal intentions if the expatriate was more satisfied with the nonwork aspects of living overseas. Moreover, expatriates with greater family responsibility paid more attention to nonwork satisfaction when contemplating assignment termination. For spouses, withdrawal cognitions related to how well they adjusted to the move overseas and spouse adjustment predicted the extent of interaction with the local community and cultural adjustment reported by expatriates. In terms of work attitudes, expatriates reported higher job

satisfaction if they had fewer family responsibilities and their spouse had higher nonwork satisfaction. Takeuchi, Yun, and Tesluk (2002) also examined spillover between work and nonwork domains in an international context. Supporting their prediction of crossover effects, spouse general adjustment was reciprocally related to both expatriate general adjustment and expatriate work adjustment. In addition, spouse language proficiency predicted how well the spouse adjusted to the assignment and expatriate general adjustment related to job satisfaction, which then predicted expatriate intentions to return early. Shaffer, Harrison, Gilley, and Luk (2001) also examined predictors of expatriate withdrawal intentions, finding that lower perceptions of organizational support, higher work interfering with family, and higher family interfering with work were significant predictors. They also found several interactive effects. Specifically, the negative effect of work interfering with family on intentions to withdraw was higher among expatriates that were more highly committed to the organization. Similarly, the negative effect of family interfering with work on intentions to withdraw was higher among expatriates that were more highly committed to their family.

Caliguri, Hyland, Joshi, and Bross (1998) also examined the role of family in understanding expatriate adjustment using spillover theory as an organizing framework. They found that family characteristics such as communication, adaptability, and support enhanced family adjustment to the overseas assignment, which in turn related positively to expatriates' adjustment to their work. Moreover, family characteristics (e.g., adaptability) were more important in predicting family adjustment among those with less positive attitudes about the global assignment. This suggests that family coping ability is particularly important in situations where the family is less receptive to the pending move.

In a final international study of work, family, and relocation, Stephens and Black (1991) focused on spouses' career-orientation. As expected, they found that higher-earning spouses were more likely to work after moving overseas than their lower-earning counterparts. However, Stephens and Black found no effect of spouses' post-move employment status on the couple's standard of living, presumably due to the generous compensation packages offered to expatriate managers. Moreover, spouse employment status was not related to expatriate managers' adjustment or commitment to staying on assignment.

5.6. Career and job-related outcomes

5.6.1. Absenteeism/tardiness/performance

Several studies have examined family factors associated with absenteeism and tardiness. In a longitudinal study of registered nurses, Blau (1985) examined five unique types of withdrawal behaviors (unexcused absence, excused personal absence, excused sick family absence, composite absence, and unexcused tardiness) and found that the number of dependents and being married related to excused sick family absences. A later study by Blau (1995) examined group-level lateness as a predictor of individual-level lateness among bank tellers and hospital employees. Of relevance to this review is the finding that work–family conflict was related to individual lateness.

Several other studies examined family correlates of absenteeism. Hackett, Bycio, and Guion (1989) used a longitudinal design and found that work interfering with home activities was an important predictor of nurses' desire to be absent although it was not a consistent predictor of actual absenteeism. They also found that the influence of work interference with home on desire to be absent was present not just at the individual level but also when examining this relationship among the nurses at the group level of analysis. Hackett et al. (1989) also conducted a principal components analysis on absence-inducing events and found that two family-related factors emerged: home responsibilities (activities at home, nonwork social events, work to be done at home) and compassionate leave (relative or sick friend requiring care or recent death among family or friends). Further, home responsibilities predicted both the desire to be absent and actual absenteeism. A later study by Erickson, Nichols, and Ritter (2000) tested a comprehensive model of absenteeism which included a wide range of family conditions and family attitudes. Of interest is the finding that the relationship between job burnout and absenteeism was significantly stronger among respondents with children under the age of 6 and among those experiencing childcare difficulties. This indicates that the combination of burnout at work and childcare responsibilities is associated with higher absenteeism.

A final study used policy capturing to better understand individuals' decisions to be absent (Martocchio & Judge, 1994). They used a mixed experimental design that incorporated a within-subjects (scenarios including different reasons for absence decision; e.g., kinship responsibilities, work demands) and a between-subjects (e.g., intent to be absent, actual kinship responsibilities) factor. Counter to prediction, actual kinship responsibilities were not related to subjects' reaction to the absence scenarios. However, the presence of kinship responsibilities in the absence scenario was related to a greater likelihood of absence. These findings indicate that when kinship responsibilities were salient, individuals were more likely to be absent than when such responsibilities were not salient. Cluster analysis also indicated that for one group of subjects (who were typically married women) kinship responsibilities exerted a strong effect on absence decisions. The authors suggested that this effect was likely due to the fact that these women were largely shouldering the childcare burden for their families.

One study examined the relationship between extra-work support and work performance (Madjar, Oldham, & Pratt, 2002). More specifically, these authors found that family and friend support for creativity at work predicted creative work performance. Moreover, family and friend support appears to influence creative work performance by enhancing positive mood.

5.6.2. Job withdrawal and work disengagement

Family variables have also been examined in studies of job search (Bretz et al., 1994) and retirement decisions (Hanisch, 1994; Kim & Feldman, 1998). Bretz et al. (1994) proposed and tested a comprehensive model of the job search process which included two family-related factors as antecedents of job search behavior: organizational work–family balance policies and desire for work–family balance. As expected, individuals reported more searching behavior if they viewed their current

organization as having fewer work–family balance policies and if they desired more work–family balance.

In terms of retirement decisions, Kim and Feldman (1998) studied the acceptance of early retirement incentives by faculty members. Among the various predictors of acceptance were family status (marital status, presence of minor children) and spouse employment status. Consistent with expectations, individuals were less likely to accept early retirement if they had minor children or working spouses. In contrast, no effect was found for marital status. Hanisch (1994) also explored the attitudes and behaviors of retirees by classifying retirees into three groups on the basis of their reported behaviors: retired for work reasons (e.g., job dissatisfaction), retired for personal reasons (e.g., spend time with spouse/family), retired for health reasons (e.g., own or spouse's health). Nineteen self-reported behaviors (e.g., spending time with relatives, working on crafts, interacting with offspring, reading fiction) were rated by retirees and used as classification variables. These behaviors yielded two significant latent constructs. Function 1 ranged from a lack of participation in activities (associated with retiring for health reasons) to planning and engaging in activities (associated with retiring for personal reasons). Function 2 ranged from less concern with health issues and family contact (associated with retiring for work reasons) to active health practices and family interaction (associated with retiring for health reasons). Eight attitudinal variables also classified retirees into their primary reason for retiring. Of particular interest in the present review, self-reported good health, health satisfaction, retirement satisfaction, and financial satisfaction best discriminated between those who retired for personal (higher on all attitudes) compared to health (lower on all attitudes) reasons.

5.6.3. *Work and career attitudes*

Several studies included family-related factors as predictors of organizational commitment. Dornstein and Matalon (1989) investigated the relationship between a wide range of variables and affective commitment among technical professional Israeli army personnel. Of interest here is the finding that attitudes of family and friends toward army service was a significant predictor of commitment, even when various job (e.g., interesting work and employment alternatives) and personal characteristics (e.g., age and education) were simultaneously considered. Moreover, this finding was consistent for both enlisted personnel and army officers. Iverson and Roy (1994) studied behavioral commitment among Australian manufacturing workers. They also tested a comprehensive model that included a wide range of job and organizational factors (e.g., pay and physical conditions), met expectations about the job, employee orientations (e.g., job satisfaction and attitudinal commitment), and environmental variables. Two family-related variables were considered within the set of environmental variables: family responsibility (i.e., the extent to which one had obligations to other family members) and kinship responsibilities (i.e., the number of relatives working at the firm). Only family responsibility related significantly (positively) to behavioral commitment.

Two additional studies examined more complex relationships between family variables and organizational commitment. Mellor, Mathieu, Barnes-Farrell, and

Rogelberg (2001) examined the interaction between various aspects of kinship responsibility and two dimensions of continuance commitment: low perceived alternatives and high personal sacrifice. Several significant interactions were found. Individuals with more children reported lower perceived employment alternatives than those without, but this finding held only among parents whose spouses' relatives did not live nearby. The opposite pattern of effects was found in regard to personal sacrifice; employees with children and with their own relatives living nearby reported higher personal sacrifice than parents without relatives living close by. In contrast, this same relationship between having children and personal sacrifice was stronger when the spouse's relatives were *absent*. In addition, the kinship responsibility variable of marital status interacted with proximity of relatives. Being married related to greater personal sacrifice, but only for those without relatives living nearby. In a second study, Finegold, Mohrman, and Spreitzer (2002) found an interaction between age and work-life balance on affective commitment. Counter to expectation, work-life balance was more strongly related to commitment among employees under 30 compared to middle-aged and older employees.

A final study by Peluchette (1993) examined the various predictors of career success among university faculty. Of interest to the present review is the finding that interrole conflict negatively related to subjective perceptions of career success.

5.7. Gender and the relationship between work and family domains

Due to the influx of women into the labor force since 1980, and the corresponding change in gender role expectations and family life, the study of gender in relation to work–family issues has been the subject of substantial attention in the IO/OB WF literature. These studies fall into three primary categories: studies of gender differences in work–family interactions, studies of women's experiences with work and family, and studies of men's experiences with work and family.

5.7.1. Gender differences in work–family interactions

5.7.1.1. Work–family conflict. There is mixed evidence as to whether men and women report different levels of WFC. Some research finds no gender differences (Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Eagle, Miles, & Icenogle, 1997), whereas other studies find that women report higher levels of some dimensions of WFC (Behson, 2002a; Gutek, Searle, & Klepa, 1991; Loerch, Russell, & Rush, 1989; Nielson et al., 2001, female protégés; Wallace, 1999), or overall WFC (Frone et al., 1992b). One study found that men reported higher WFC than women (Parasurman & Simmers, 2001). Regarding gender differences in the permeability of work and family boundaries, findings consistently support a pattern of asymmetry such that family boundaries are more influenced by work than vice versa (Eagle et al., 1997; Frone et al., 1992a, 1992b; Gutek et al., 1991). However, Pleck's (1977) contention of gender differences in permeability has yielded mixed support. Two studies found no differences in work–family permeability among men and women (Eagle et al., 1997; Frone et al., 1992b). Another study found that women reported more work-to-family conflict than men

but no gender difference in family-to-work conflict (Gutek et al., 1991). Finally, a qualitative study of self-employed individuals found that men reported more work-to-family intrusions whereas women reported more family-to-work intrusions, particularly if they had young children (Loscocco, 1997).

Another area of research compared predictors of WFC for men and women. Lorcher et al. (1989) investigated the family-related antecedents of time-, strain-, and behavior-based WFC, finding some gender differences. Family conflict was a significant predictor of strain-based and behavior-based conflict for both genders, and a unique predictor of time-based conflict for men but not women. Further, time-based conflict was predicted by family intrusions and total role involvement for women whereas family intrusions were a unique predictor of strain-based conflict for men. Focusing instead on work domain predictors, Wallace (1999) studied time- and strain-based conflict among male and female lawyers, finding similarities and differences across genders. Work involvement variables were not predictive of either type of conflict among women, although higher work motivation and working more hours were associated with men's strain- and time-based conflict, respectively. Work overload and being in a profit-driven environment had similar negative effects on men and women's time-based work-family conflict. In terms of strain-based conflict, a profit-driven environment was associated with conflict only for men whereas work overload predicted conflict for both genders, although its effect was stronger for women. The work context was also important. For women, working in a law firm setting was associated with greater time- and strain-based conflict, whereas setting had no effect for men. Also, as the percentage of female lawyers in the workplace increased, men reported greater time-based conflict and women reported more strain-based conflict.

Duxbury and Higgins (1991) also found gender differences in the antecedents of WFC. Work involvement was a stronger predictor of WCF for women whereas family involvement was a stronger predictor for men. In terms of work and family expectations, work expectations were a more significant predictor of WFC for men while family expectations were a stronger predictor of family conflict for women. Moreover, work conflict was a more important determinant of family conflict among men whereas family conflict was a better predictor of family conflict for women. The combination of gender and hours spent in the home and work domain has also been investigated (Gutek et al., 1991). For women, the number of hours spent on the job was related to work-to-family conflict. For family-to-work conflict, no such effect of hours spent in family work was found for women or men. Finally, among self-employed individuals, the flexibility afforded by owning one's own business was discussed much more often by women as providing work-family balance (Loscocco, 1997).

Several studies by Frone and colleagues found that WFC predicted poor physical and psychological health, as well as heavy alcohol use (Frone, Russell, & Barnes, 1996; Frone, Russell, & Cooper, 1993). However, neither of these studies found the expected gender differences in the relationship between WFC and outcomes. In contrast, Duxbury and Higgins (1991) found that higher work conflict, as well as WFC, was associated with lower quality of work life for women. WFC was more strongly related to lower quality of family life for men than women. Moreover,

the relationship between the quality of family life and life satisfaction was significantly stronger for men than for women.

5.7.1.2. Stress. Several studies have explored gender differences in work stress. Frankenhaeuser et al. (1989) compared various indices of health among sixty healthy non-smoking men and women. Female managers reported significantly more conflict between work and non-work responsibilities than both male managers and male or female clerical workers. In addition, female managers' blood pressure remained high and norepinephrine excretion increased after work. In contrast, both decreased after work for men. This suggests that men are able to unwind quickly after work whereas women have a more difficult time relaxing from the day's events. In another study of stress among professional men and women, Lundberg and Frankenhaeuser (1999) found that women reported greater stress associated with both paid and unpaid work responsibilities, perhaps due to their greater responsibilities for household chores. In addition, the presence of children at home had a more significant negative effect on women's reported job overload and stress than men's. Further, women were more likely to report that having children had a negative effect on their career opportunities than men. Consistent with these findings, women (particularly those with children at home) had higher levels of norepinephrine both at work and at home. Parasurman and Simmers (2001) also found that working women reported greater life stress than men, perhaps because they were more involved in their family and committed more time to home activities than men.

Gender differences in the relationship between the receipt of social support and health has also been examined (Fusilier, Ganster, & Mayes, 1986). Counter to expectations, both men and women benefited similarly from co-worker support in terms of life satisfaction and depression. However, gender and co-worker support interacted in the prediction of anxiety; co-worker support had a positive effect on anxiety for women and no effect for men. Unexpectedly, support from family and friends was unrelated to life satisfaction for women yet showed a positive relationship for men. A similar pattern was found for the receipt of family/friend support and depression among men.

5.7.1.3. Career outcomes. Another popular area of research compares the family-related correlates of pay, promotion, employment disruption, geographic mobility, turnover, and self-report career success among women and men. While these studies also typically included a wide range of work-related variables (e.g., education and experience), in keeping with the focus of this review we discuss findings associated with family-related correlates and interactions with gender. Several studies indicate that married women managers tend to have more career interruptions (often due to family leave) than men (Kirchmeyer, 1998; Lyness & Thompson, 1997). Mothers with working spouses also reported more work disruptions than single or married childless women (Tharenou, 1999). Further, such interruptions have been linked to feeling less successful in one's career (Kirchmeyer, 1998). Differences in family structure also exist, with female managers being less likely to be married or have children than male managers (Kirchmeyer, 1998; Lyness & Thompson, 1997).

Married women managers are also more likely to be in dual-career marriages whereas their married male counterparts are more likely to have nonworking spouses (Kirchmeyer, 1998; Lyness & Thompson, 1997). Finally, while women tend to have higher turnover rates than men, no gender differences were found in terms of leaving for family versus other reasons (Stroh, Brett, & Reilly, 1996).

Research has also linked family structure to career outcomes. Individuals enjoy higher salaries and greater mobility if they have more family power, and women tend to have less family power than men (Stroh, Brett, & Reilly, 1992). Research also indicates that both pay and organizational level are associated with having a nonworking spouse for men (but not women) and men with children report holding positions at higher organizational levels than those without (Kirchmeyer, 1998). Moreover, using a longitudinal design, Tharenou (1999) found that being a mother with a working spouse led to greater advancement than being a childless single. Furthermore, mothers with working spouses exhibited similar rates of advancement as married women without children and single mothers. Further, childless singles advanced at a lower rate than married individuals with or without children, although single childless women had less work disruption than married women (Tharenou, 1999). Among singles, single parents advanced more rapidly than those without children, presumably due to greater financial need (Tharenou, 1999). There appears to be gender effects as well such that being single and childless led to greater advancement for men and less advancement for women (Tharenou, 1999). Moreover, single female parents (but not single male parents) reported more work disruptions than their female counterparts without children. In terms of employment stability, individuals with more children tended to report greater intentions to stay at their current employer, and this effect was particularly strong for men (Stroh et al., 1996).

Gender identity has also been examined as a predictor of career outcomes. Lobel and St. Clair (1992) found that family-oriented women with preschoolers obtained higher merit increases than their male counterparts. The opposite effect was found among career-oriented women and men such that women with preschoolers obtained lower merit increases while men with preschoolers obtained higher ones. Interestingly, parental status was not related to work effort for either gender, suggesting that the findings were not due to performance differences. A final experimental study used vignettes to examine perceived gender-related attitudes toward the career success and personal failure of men and women (Westman & Etzion, 1990). One set of vignettes described a young male or female manager facing a major promotion. A second set of vignettes described a married male or female manager with children facing this same promotion. Respondents were asked to report their different family expectations for these four managers. A larger proportion of respondents described the young male manager as already married. In contrast, the young female manager was viewed as more likely to pay a price for her success by remaining single than her male counterpart. Different attributions were also made about the quality of family relations among male and female managers. Among both young managers and mature, married managers, participants more often expected good marital relations for the female manager. Overall, the married female manager was perceived the

most favorably by participants who perceived her as a “superwoman” who maintained high quality family relations along with a successful career.

5.7.1.4. Work attitudes and values. Two studies compared gender differences in work values as a function of family variables. An early study by Walker, Tausky, and Oliver (1982) compared the reported importance of various aspects of work among men and women. Of interest to the present review is the finding that women with children reported greater value on extrinsic aspects of work, yet placed lower priority on the value of convenience (e.g., time to commute), relations with co-workers, and intrinsic aspects of the job than their childless counterparts. Gender differences in work values were also studied by Beutell and Brenner (1986). Values associated with security, prestige, advancement, and challenge were associated with men whereas values related to the work environment, learning and development, independence, cultural and esthetic interests, and making a social contribution through work were associated with women. Moreover, significant differences in values remained when comparisons were made between men and women with similar life orientations (i.e., family first priority and career first priority).

Three additional studies examined whether there are differential predictors of work attitudes as a function of gender and family variables. Buffardi, Smith, O'Brien, and Erdwins (1999) examined the relationship between dependant care responsibilities and job satisfaction, finding that eldercare and childcare responsibilities related to different aspects of satisfaction. Further, women reported less satisfaction with the organization's leave benefits and less work–family balance than men. Of particular interest, childcare responsibilities and gender interacted such that the negative effect of childcare on work–family balance and satisfaction with leave benefits was greater for women than men. No such effects were found for eldercare responsibilities. Scandura and Lankau (1997) also found interactive effects of gender and family responsibility on the relationship between flexible work schedules and work attitudes. Specifically, women who perceived their company as offering more flexible work schedules had higher commitment and satisfaction than women who did not view their company as flexible. In addition, flexibility related positively to job satisfaction and commitment among those with children under 18 living at home.

In a final study, Lambert (1991) explored the role of gender and family variables on a variety of work attitudes. Counter to prediction, parental status variables were not associated with women's work attitudes. However, fathers who reported that their youngest child was 2 or younger reported higher intrinsic motivation than fathers reporting that their youngest child was a teenager. Moreover, fathers with a child younger than 2 reported higher intrinsic motivation than their female counterparts. Gender differences were also found with respect to characteristics of the spouse's job. Women's job satisfaction was significantly (positively) related to their husband's job security while no such relationship was found for men's job satisfaction. Further, women reported lower job involvement as their husbands worked more hours. In contrast, wives' work hours were positively related to men's job involvement.

5.7.1.5. Career choice. Finally, a few studies examined gender differences in career choice as a function of personal and family-related variables. An early study by Kassner (1981) found that male college students generally preferred traditional marriages while women preferred egalitarian marriages. Moreover, gender interacted with desired task and family involvement in predicting marriage preference. For men, a preference for high task involvement at work related to a preference for a traditional marriage whereas low task involvement associated with desiring an egalitarian marriage. The opposite pattern was found for women; as their preference for task involvement increased so did their preference for an egalitarian marriage whereas those wanting low task involvement preferred a traditional marriage. In terms of desired family involvement, significant differences in type of marriage desired were found among women but not men. Women wanting high family involvement preferred a traditional marriage whereas those desiring lower family involvement wanted an egalitarian one. Parental role modeling also interacted with gender in predicting marriage preference. Specifically, men who believed that their father had high job task involvement preferred egalitarian marriages whereas those with fathers who were less involved at work preferred traditional marriages. The opposite pattern of effects was found for women. Finally, perceptions of the mother's family involvement predicted women's, but not men's, marriage preference. Women with mothers who were more strongly involved in their family preferred a traditional marriage themselves. In contrast, those with mothers who were less involved in the family preferred egalitarian marriages.

In a qualitative study, Shann (1983) explored gender differences in the career plans of individuals completing graduate work in both male- and female-dominated professions. Of particular interest is the finding that women were more likely than men to discuss plans to manage work and family responsibilities when projecting where their career would be in the next 5–10 years. In addition, the specificity and ambitiousness of women's career plans were lower during the timeframe in which they reported such concerns. Occupational differences were also found among women, with almost none of the women in law school discussing plans for marriage or children over a 20-year timeline. Lips (1992) also studied gender and family attitudes in relation to the decision to pursue male-dominated college courses and majors. While both genders were generally positive about women's ability to effectively manage home and work roles, female students more strongly endorsed this idea than male students. Lips also found that women who believed that a career in science was compatible with family life expressed stronger intentions to take science-related courses whereas such beliefs were negatively related to men's intent to enroll in science courses.

A final study by Peake and Harris (2002) examined attitudes toward planning for work and family roles in terms of knowledge/certainty (confidence in the ability to solve work–family problems), commitment (desire to seek a multiple role lifestyle), independence (autonomy in making decisions related to multiple role membership), and involvement (urgency in planning for multiple role lifestyle). Findings demonstrated that gender, career traditionality, and having marriage plans related to role planning attitudes. Those with marriage plans reported greater certainty/knowledge

than those without. Marriage planning also interacted with career traditionality in predicting independence. Those planning for marriage and pursuing non-traditional career plans reported higher independence than their non-traditional counterparts not planning marriage. In contrast, those planning marriage and taking a traditional career path reported greater independence than those not planning marriage. A three-way interaction was also found for commitment to, and involvement in, multiple roles. For men with marriage plans, commitment and involvement were consistently high. However, for men not planning to marry soon, those dating nontraditional women tended to report higher commitment and involvement than those dating traditional women. For women without marriage plans, involvement and commitment were uniformly low. However, non-traditional women with marriage plans reported favorable attitudes toward both types of multiple role planning whereas their traditional counterparts reported less favorable attitudes. Peake and Harris (2002) also found that attitudes toward multiple role planning mediated the relationship between gender, career traditionality, and marriage plans on actual planning behavior. Further, they found that non-traditional couples making marriage plans were in greater agreement about role planning than traditional couples with such plans. However, the opposite effect was found among traditional and non-traditional couples not planning marriage.

5.7.2. Women's experience with work and family

Rather than focusing on gender differences, another body of IO/OB WF research has examined family variables in relation to women's experiences in the workplace. The studies included in this section used all-female samples and framed their predictions around the unique experiences of women.

5.7.2.1. Stress and coping. One line of research focused on interrole conflict and the coping strategies that women use to deal with stress. An early study by Beutell and Greenhaus (1982) found that women experienced more intense conflicts if their work role salience was dissimilar from their husbands. Women also reported greater conflicts if they had more children at home and a husband with a highly salient work role. Further, women who used reactive coping strategies (i.e., tried to respond to all role senders' expectations) reported being involved in more roles and placing greater importance on those roles. In addition, the use of reactive coping was related to lower life satisfaction among women who had dissatisfied husbands. Beutell and Greenhaus (1983) also found that reactive coping was perceived as less successful than active forms of coping such as role redefinition (i.e., re-negotiating role expectations, changing one's attitudes and beliefs about role expectations). However, a later study found that family role redefinition (but not work role redefinition) was an effective coping strategy for dealing with family-to-work spillover among Japanese working women (Matsui, Ohsawa, & Onglatco, 1995). Another form of effective coping is the explicit discussion of how to manage a dual-career lifestyle, which was related to less interrole conflict and greater problem-solving effectiveness (Steffy & Ashbaugh, 1986).

Husbands' characteristics have also been linked to stress and coping among women. Beutell and Greenhaus (1983) found that the relationship between nonwork

demands and the number of conflicts experienced was stronger if women were married to a man with traditional sex role attitudes. Further, for women with traditional sex role attitudes there was a stronger positive relationship between the use of reactive coping and conflict intensity. Other studies examined support provided by one's husband. While husband support did not act as a buffer of the negative relationship between parental demands and work–family spillover in a study of married Japanese working women (Matsui et al., 1995), other studies find that spouse support can buffer the negative relationship between stressors and marital functioning among white-collar working mothers (Suchet & Barling, 1986). Likewise, Rosenbaum and Cohen (1999) found that women who received emotional support from their husbands reported lower levels of depression than those receiving less support. Further, women who had little spouse support and expectations to be the primary childcare provider reported the highest the levels of anxiety. Receiving less emotional support from one's husband also predicted dysphoria and anxiety among women who were less resourceful. Main effects of spouse support are also reported with spouse support being related negatively to interrole conflict (Beatty, 1996; Steffy & Ashbaugh, 1986) and related positively to both personal well-being (Beatty, 1996) and marital functioning (Beatty, 1996; Steffy & Ashbaugh, 1986). Other aspects of husbands' behavior have been linked to wives' well-being and satisfaction. Specifically, Burke, Weir, and DuWors (1980) found that wives who reported higher levels of type A behavior among their husbands also tended to report less marital satisfaction, more intrusion of work into family life, and lower emotional well-being themselves.

Several studies focused on WFC among women. Vinokur, Pierce, and Buck (1999) found general support for Frone et al.'s (1992b) model among military mothers and then tested an expanded version of this model which included variables specific to parental and marital roles. Consistent with Frone et al.'s (1992b) findings, domain-specific relationships between distress and stressors were found. In addition, job distress, marital relationship distress, and family-to-work conflict predicted mothers' depression. Interestingly, the level of involvement in marital and parental roles predicted less, rather than greater, distress. Also, while job stress was related negatively to work-to-family conflict, parental stress (but not marital stress) related to family-to-work conflict. Also noteworthy is the finding that family-to-work conflict exerted an effect on work-to-family conflict, but not vice versa as Frone et al. (1992a, 1992b) found. Other research finds that greater parental demands are associated with more family-to-work spillover (Matsui et al., 1995) and work–family conflict (Beatty, 1996) among women. Moreover, various types of interrole conflict relate to stress and strain (Matsui et al., 1995; Steffy & Ashbaugh, 1986), health complaints (Beatty, 1996), marital dissatisfaction (Steffy & Ashbaugh, 1986), and greater feelings of continuance commitment (Casper, Martin, Buffardi, & Erdwins, 2002) among women. Moreover, Casper et al. (2002) found a complex pattern of relationships between perceived support and two types of WFC on women's continuance commitment. Specifically, under conditions where work interfering with family is high (but not when it was low), when both perceived organizational support and family interfering with work are high, continuance commitment is low. This suggests

that organizational support may be particularly powerful at reducing feelings of sunk costs among women who are experiencing bi-directional WFC.

Work stressors have also been linked to reduced marital satisfaction among professional women and while the effects were smaller in magnitude, some home stressors relate to work satisfaction (Beatty, 1996). Likewise, Anderson-Kulman and Paludi (1986) found that family functioning (family cohesion, family conflict) and role strain were predicted by factors in both the home (e.g., how organized things were in the family domain, engagement in recreational activities, and expressiveness of family members) and work (e.g., job satisfaction) environments.

5.7.2.2. Career behavior. Several studies focused on women's career and employment choices. Fitzpatrick and Silverman (1989) compared sociodemographic and motivational variables related to women's selection of traditional and non-traditional careers. In contrast to previous research, findings indicated more similarities than differences among women in engineering, science, and humanities/social sciences. With respect to family composition the only significant difference was that women pursuing science or engineering degrees were more likely to report that their father's occupation was the same as theirs, compared to women pursuing traditional majors (e.g., humanities/social sciences). In terms of support for career choice, both mothers' and fathers' support for their career choice were stronger for those pursuing nontraditional careers than those targeting traditional careers.

A comprehensive test of a causal model of college women's career choice was provided by Fassinger (1985). The final model indicated that women's career choices were influenced by their orientation toward both family and career, which in turn was predicted by ability, achievement orientation, and feminist orientation. In particular, women who displayed a high feminist orientation and were achievement oriented reported being both career-oriented and family-oriented. This emphasis on both family and career led these women to pursue higher prestige non-traditional careers. Marital orientation was studied by Hallett and Gilbert (1997), again using a college student population. Women reporting an orientation towards a role sharing marriage were significantly different from those oriented toward a traditional marriage (i.e., woman is primarily responsible for childrearing and man for financial provision) on several variables. Specifically, role sharing women reported having more instrumental, masculine type traits (e.g., competitive), higher self-esteem, greater vocational commitment, a stronger preference for a partner who shares domestic and parenting tasks, and more liberal attitudes than women preferring a traditional marriage.

Intentions to work after childbirth and turnover decisions have also been studied among women. Werbel (1998) found that women with more traditional gender role values and those who believed that their spouse preferred that they not work expressed weaker intentions to work after childbirth. Mothers were also less likely to work after giving birth if their husbands earned more money. Finally, traditional gender role values were associated with lower intentions to work after childbirth, which in turn predicted the partner's preference for the wife not to work. Marital and family correlates of women's intentions to leave and actual employment deci-

sions have also been studied (Rosin & Korabik, 1990). Employed women were less likely to be married than those who were currently unemployed or working part-time and unemployed women placed more importance on non-work factors (e.g., time for family) than self-employed or organizationally employed women. In addition, a larger percent (almost 90%) of part-time and unemployed women were mothers, and they were also more likely to have more preschool-aged children. Reasons for leaving one's previous employer were also examined. Of interest here is the finding that a relatively small percent of women left their jobs for family reasons (e.g., to start a family) and almost all who did considered their departure from the workplace temporary. Moreover, women who expressed strong intentions to leave their organization more often discussed work-related (e.g., lack of opportunity) and gender-related reasons (e.g., male boss, sexual harassment) than family reasons.

Another aspect of career choice involves women's experience with part-time work. Higgins, Duxbury, and Johnson (2000) explored this issue among part-time working women who were in careers (career-oriented) and jobs (job-oriented). As expected, part-time women reported less work interfering with family, fewer difficulties with individual time management, and higher life satisfaction than full-time women. However, interactions existed between work status and job type. While part-time work enhanced both family and time management, the effects were more pronounced for job-oriented part-timers than career-oriented part-timers. Likewise, part-time work related to less role overload and family interfering with work, but only amongst job-oriented part-time women. These differences may be due in part to the reasons for part-time work and its perceived advantages and disadvantages. Part-time career women were more likely to have worked full-time previously and work part-time in response to family concerns. They also reported that the main advantage of part-time work spending more time with kids, personal fulfillment, and greater productivity at work. In contrast, job-oriented women tended work part-time consistently and did so in order to provide themselves with stimulation outside the home. Part-time job-oriented women also reported that the primary advantage of working was improved mood at home and greater enjoyment of the social aspects of work. Reported disadvantages at home were similar across the two groups (e.g., hectic pace and childcare concerns) but disadvantages at work differed. For career-oriented women disadvantages centered on being stigmatized for working part-time and fewer advancement opportunities. For job-oriented women disadvantages included heavy workloads and poor communication at work.

5.7.2.3. Individual differences. Two studies focused on individual differences among women that relate to work and family. In a study of women's union participation, Bulgar and Mellor (1997) found that 53% of the women surveyed noted that their family situation (e.g., household duties) presented barriers to union activity. Moreover, family barriers were rated higher than the other barriers studied (e.g., community barriers and work barriers). However, family barriers did not emerge as unique predictors of either self-efficacy for union participation or actual union participation. Individual differences in home versus career orientation have also been examined among Japanese college students (Matsui, Tsuzuki, & Onglatco, 1999).

Findings revealed that having a strong home orientation is related to the belief in greater homemaking rewards and fewer homemaking costs. A strong work orientation was predicted not only by greater perceived benefits and lower costs in the work role, but also by greater perceived costs associated with homemaking. Maternal employment was also examined as a predictor. For women with employed mothers, perceived work rewards mediated the positive relationship between perceptions of maternal satisfaction and one's own work role orientation. Among those with mothers who were homemakers, stronger perceptions of maternal satisfaction related to more favorable attitudes about the rewards available in that role, which in turn predicted home orientation.

5.7.3. Men's experiences with work and family

In this final section are studies which used all-male samples to explore issues of relevance to men's experience with work and family life. Similar to the previous section, these studies made predictions about the unique experiences of men in their work and family lives.

5.7.3.1. The effect of work on family. Four studies examined how men's work experiences influence family life. In terms of marital relations, Barling (1986a, 1986b) examined employed fathers' interrole conflict in a variety of life roles, as well as the relationship between such conflict and marital adjustment. Results support the expectation of a negative relationship between interrole conflict and marital adjustment, and this relationship was weaker among fathers who were higher on the personality trait hardiness. In another study of marital functioning, Barling and Rosenbaum (1986) found that physically abusive husbands reported more stressful work events and a greater impact of experienced stress than either distressed, non-abusive, or satisfied husbands. Two other studies examined fathers' work experiences and children's behavior. In one study, Barling (1986b) found that a close father-child relationship, in conjunction with higher job dissatisfaction, related to reports of greater hyperactivity and conduct problems among children. A second study examined the mediating role of job-related affect on the relationship between fathers' work experiences, parenting behaviors, and children's behavior (Stewart & Barling, 1996). Findings indicate that work experiences such as low decision latitude, high job demands, low job security, and high interrole conflict predicted greater negative job-related affect, which in turn increased father's punishing and rejecting behavior toward children. In turn, these behaviors predicted children's acting out at school.

5.7.3.2. The effect of family on work. Five additional studies examined the effect of family variables on work among employed men. Two studies examined how wives' employment affects husbands' well-being and attitudes. Using data from the 1977 Quality of Employment Survey (Quinn & Staines, 1979) Staines, Pottick, and Fudge (1986) found that wives' employment had a negative effect on husbands' life and job satisfaction, as compared to men whose wives did not work in paid employment. Additional analyses suggest that a possible reason for this relationship is that wives' employment weakens men's perception of themselves as breadwinners, which in turn

reduces their job and life satisfaction. A later study by Parasuraman, Greenhaus, Rabinowitz, Bedeian, and Mossholder (1989) built on this finding by examining several other possible mediating variables in the wife employment-husband attitude relationship. Results indicate that husbands with working wives reported less time commitment at work, and that this in turn reduced their job satisfaction. Further, while it did not emerge as a significant mediator, husbands' reports of WFC were negatively related to job satisfaction, marital adjustment, and quality of life. Higgins and Duxbury (1992) also examined men's WFC among those in dual-career and traditional marriages. Significant differences were found between these two groups. Specifically, the positive relationship between work conflict and family conflict was stronger among dual-career men, as was the association between work conflict and WFC.

Two additional studies examined family-related correlates of men's work attitudes. Thompson, Kopelman, and Schriesheim (1992) examined how various aspects of life satisfaction related to work attitudes among self-employed and organizationally employed men. Of relevance here is the finding that the positive relationship between family and job satisfaction was stronger among self-employed men than organizationally employed men. Another study by Judge, Boudreau, and Bretz (1994) found that significant differences existed between work-to-family conflict and family-to-work conflict exerted indirect effects on job satisfaction by increasing reported job stress. Work-to-family conflict also had a direct negative effect on life satisfaction. Further, reciprocal relationships were found between job and life satisfaction (positive), as well as job stress and job satisfaction (negative).

5.8. Work–nonwork experiences of dual-earner couples

Given the increase in dual-earner families a body of IO/OB WFC research has emerged which focuses on work–family issues among this population. This includes studies aimed at understanding stress and well-being among dual-earner couples, the work–family interface among dual-earner couples, and the job and career attitudes of dual-earner couples.

5.8.1. Stress and well-being of dual-earner couples

In a comprehensive study of stress, Lewis and Cooper (1987) studied 152 couples at three life stages: individuals with preschool-aged children, expectant parents, and those without children. Of particular interest is the finding that various physical and psychological manifestations of stress were predicted by non-work variables, especially for parents. Significant predictors included greater parental role pressure, less help from one's partner with housework, the childcare arrangement used, having younger children, and having more children. Also, regardless of parental status, having a wife with greater work commitment than the husband related to manifestations of stress. Differences were also found based on gender and parental status. For example, mothers reported significantly higher time pressure while fathers reported less pressure than other men. Women also reported greater fatigue-induced pressure as well as greater anxiety and depression, perhaps because they contributed more to

domestic and childcare tasks. Parents had the greatest difficulty in rearranging work schedules and were more dissatisfied with domestic and childcare assistance provided by their partner than those without children. Finally, expectant parents reported the greatest pressure due to work overload and mothers reported more difficulty combining parenting and employment than fathers.

Sekaran (1983a, 1985) conducted several studies on the quality of life among dual-career husbands and wives. In the first of these studies Sekaran (1983a) found that those who reported less stress when occupying multiple roles, greater enabling processes (e.g., role sharing), more integration of work and family roles, and who used hired help reported higher job and life satisfaction. Moreover, non-work variables explained more variance in life satisfaction than job satisfaction. Sekaran (1985) extended this line of research by proposing that job and life satisfaction mediated the relationship between non-work factors and mental health among dual-career husbands and wives. For both genders, less multiple role stress and greater enabling processes predicted higher job satisfaction. Moreover, role stress was negatively related to life satisfaction for both husbands and wives. In contrast, enabling processes were predictive of life satisfaction for wives but not husbands. For husbands, job and life satisfaction completely mediated the relationship between non-work factors and mental health. For wives, only life satisfaction was a significant mediator, and it partially mediated the relationship between non-work factors and mental health. Specifically, having more children and experiencing less stress due to multiple role membership continued to exert main effects on women's mental health when life satisfaction was also simultaneously considered.

Schwartzberg and Dytell (1996) also examined the effect of work and family stress on the psychological well-being (i.e., self-esteem and depression) of working mothers and fathers. For fathers, high levels of work stress and family stress predicted lower self-esteem. In contrast only higher work stress was related to lower self-esteem among mothers. A different pattern emerged when predicting depression. Among fathers, greater family stress was associated with depression whereas both work and family stress predicted depression for mothers. Thus, the effect of work and family stress on psychological well-being appears to vary as a function of both gender and the dimension of psychological health examined. Additional analyses isolated the specific work and family stressors associated with psychological health. None of the specific family stressors were related to self-esteem among mothers or fathers. In contrast, depression among fathers was associated with lack of spouse support, family role insignificance, and greater emotional support from children (counter to prediction). Several specific work stresses were also related to fathers' depression. For mothers, lack of task sharing at home and work role insignificance predicted depression.

A final study investigated predictors of marital satisfaction among Finnish dual-earner couples (Mauno & Kinnunen, 1999). A unique aspect of this study was the examination of crossover effects of psychosomatic symptoms on marital satisfaction between husband-wife pairs. Interestingly, no support was found for the proposed crossover effects. However, WFC predicted job exhaustion for both husbands and wives. Further, reports of more psychosomatic symptoms (e.g., tension, headaches) related to less marital satisfaction for both genders.

5.8.2. *The work–family interface among dual-earner couples*

Three studies focused specifically on WFC among dual-earner couples. Greenhaus, Parasuraman, Granrose, Rabinowitz, and Beutell (1989) found similarities and differences in the predictors of time- and strain-based conflict between dual-career men and women. Greater role ambiguity and role conflict were the only significant predictors of time-based conflict for men. In contrast, high job involvement, less autonomy at work, greater task complexity, and greater role overload predicted this type of conflict for women. In terms of strain-based conflict, older men and those with greater tenure reported more conflict whereas no such effect was found for women. Job involvement was again a strong predictor of strain-based conflict for women, along with task complexity, role overload, and role conflict. Other significant predictors for men included lower task autonomy, less flexibility in one's work schedule, and greater role ambiguity and overload. Interactions were also found between partners' work salience on work–family conflict. Partners' job involvement interacted with personal job involvement to predict time-based conflict among men. Counter to prediction, time-based conflict was lowest for men when both they and their partners displayed a high level of job involvement. A significant interaction was also found between self and partner's career priority on the strain-based conflict of men. Strain-based conflict was high if both individuals placed a higher priority on their own career than each others' career or when both people gave a lower priority to their own career relative to their partners' career. No significant interaction effects emerged for women.

Hammer, Allen, and Grigsby (1997) also examined the effects of work and family variables on the WFC of dual-earner couples. For both men and women higher work involvement and less schedule flexibility related to WFC. Greater family involvement also related to WFC for women but not men. Crossover effects were also examined and a positive relationship was found between partners' reports of WFC for both men and women. In addition, men reported greater WFC if their female partner reported that her career took priority over his. A corresponding crossover effect for career priority was not found for women.

In an attempt to understand how dual-earner couples deal with work–family conflicts, Karambaya and Reilly (1992) used both qualitative and quantitative measures to examine how and why individuals restructure work to deal more effectively with family demands. They found that while wives restructured work more than husbands, partner's reports of work restructuring correlated positively. Further, both men and women restructured work more if they were more involved in their families. Specific ways in which work was restructured included modifying one's work hours, working weekends and evenings, limiting travel, and making special accommodations for children and spouses. Interestingly, wives reported greater work restructuring if they had young children and higher earning husbands while no comparable effect was found for men. In terms of predicting marital satisfaction, husbands reported greater satisfaction when both they and their wives indicated greater family involvement whereas the marital satisfaction of wives was only predicted by their own family involvement. Canonical analysis also revealed a pattern whereby couples with high levels of family involvement and low levels of work involvement tended to report greater marital satisfaction and lower stress.

Also focusing on the work–family interface, Moen and Sweet (2002) compared the family and career experiences of dual-earner couples who worked at the same organization (coworkers) and those who worked at different organizations (non-coworkers). Coworking couples tended to be younger, be either non-parents or have preschoolers, and be in more egalitarian marriages than their non-coworking counterparts. The experience of coworking also differed among men and women. Men experienced positive career effects of coworking such as higher job prestige and less turnover. These effects were particularly pronounced among young men without children (job prestige and turnover), older men (job prestige and turnover), and in companies with greater numbers of coworking couples (job prestige). As a caveat to these career enhancing effects, coworking men reported lower job prestige if their wives held professional jobs and they did not. Interestingly, younger coworking men without children worked more hours, reported greater workload and control over their schedule, and had more negative spillover from work-to-family than their non-coworking counterparts. However, coworking men with children reported less negative work-to-family spillover as well as more positive work-to-family spillover than non-coworkers. Women experienced fewer positive career effects of coworking. While they earned more than non-coworking women, no difference in job prestige was found. Coworking women also reported more permeability between work and family roles, both in the positive and negative direction, than their non-coworking counterparts.

5.8.3. Job and career attitudes of dual-earner couples

The job and career attitudes of dual-earner couples have also been the subject of investigation. Klein (1988) examined psychological (e.g., marital satisfaction, home and career salience, and self-esteem) and sociodemographic (e.g., number of children) predictors of job satisfaction among 131 fully employed and underemployed (i.e., salary not commensurate with education level) dual-career couples. Findings suggest that the predictors of job satisfaction vary as a function of employment and parental status. For fully employed spouses (both with and without children) less home salience and greater career salience were unique predictors of job satisfaction. However, for the subset of fully employed spouses with children only higher self-esteem made a unique contribution to prediction. For underemployed spouses with and without children no significant predictors were identified. However, when analyses were conducted separately for underemployed spouses with children, marital satisfaction was a significant (positive) predictor of job satisfaction.

Gould and Werbel (1983) examined job involvement and organizational identification among 286 municipal employees, finding both to be lower among men with working spouses compared to men without working spouses. In addition, among those with working spouses the presence of children was associated with higher job involvement and identification. Yogeve and Brett (1985) extended the investigation of work involvement by developing a typology of couples based on various combinations of husbands' and wives' work and family involvement. Central to their typology is the concept of symmetry (similarities in level of role involvement) and asymmetry (differences in level of role involvement) among husband-wife pairs.

Canonical correlations at the couple level of analysis indicated that there are relationships between partners' attitudes and behaviors that reflect their level of involvement in work and family roles among dual-earner couples (symmetry) but not single-earner couples (asymmetry). More specifically, among dual earners couples there is a relationship between the role involvement of the two partners. For example, husbands, regardless of their psychological involvement with family, tend to absorb family responsibilities when the wife is highly job involved. In contrast, among single earner couples, there appeared to be no systematic relationship between husbands' and wives' role involvement. This was explained in terms of the pressure associated with managing work and family lives among dual-earner couples and the coordination necessary to do so effectively.

Career satisfaction (Aryee & Luk, 1996), career salience (Sekaran, 1982), and job insecurity perceptions (Mauno & Kinnunen, 2002) have also been examined among dual-earner couples. Aryee and Luk (1996) studied the influence of work and non-work variables on the career satisfaction of 207 dual-earner couples in Hong Kong. Of relevance to this review is the finding that while work factors had a stronger influence on the career satisfaction of husbands and wives, nonwork factors had some unique effects. In particular, satisfaction with childcare and supervisor support were significant predictors of career satisfaction for both genders. Interestingly, the family factors of spouse support, WFC and family identity were not related to career satisfaction for either husbands or wives. In a similar manner, Sekaran (1982) examined work and nonwork predictors of career salience, defined as the perception that one's career is an integral and satisfying part of one's life. For women but not men, the extent to which one had planned for a dual-career family lifestyle before marriage was predictive of career salience. This suggests that the process of planning for a dual-career lifestyle allows women to perceive their career as important, potentially satisfying, and integral to their life. A final study examined perceived job insecurity among Finnish dual-earner couples (Mauno & Kinnunen, 2002). Several crossover effects were found. Husbands' and perceptions of economic stress related to wives' perceptions of job insecurity. Similarly, wives' perceptions of economic difficulties related to husbands' worry about job loss.

5.9. Relationships among life domains

Several articles examined the relationship among various life domains. Sekaran (1983b) explored the perceptions of men and women in dual-career families in an effort to understand their concerns, priorities, and attitudes toward work and family. Results indicated that both men and women organize their work–nonwork experiences around four distinct dimensions: psychological gratification from work, effective management of multiple roles, investment–return in their careers (i.e., the extent to which they are recompensed for work efforts), and expectations from others in the organization. Loscocco (1997) approached a similar question in a qualitative study of work–family linkages among self-employed men and women. She found that control and flexibility were key motivators for self-employment, although as mentioned previously, women were more likely to utilize this flexibility to help them attain

work–family balance. Parenthood was also deeply embedded in individuals' decisions and actions. For women in particular, self-employment was often discussed as a way to manage a career and accommodate family. Traditionality of gender role expectations was also a salient theme and influenced how individuals viewed their role as worker and parent. In particular, men discussed the importance of being the “breadwinner” for the family and how self-employment was a means to this end even though it took time away from the family. Interestingly, some self-employed women were clearly secondary financial providers whose husbands had traditional gender role expectations whereas others reported being in more egalitarian marriages where they were a co-provider or the primary provider. A final theme that emerged in the data is the changing nature of work–nonwork relations as a function of time and the importance of role synchronization in understanding how individuals manage work and family life.

Elizur (1991) examined the underlying structure of work and nonwork using multidimensional scaling techniques. Two basic facets were revealed which define the work–nonwork interface. The first represents behavior modality and includes an emphasis on either action (instrumental), feelings (affective), or perceived influence at work or at home (cognitive). A second facet corresponded to the social environment in which the behavior occurs and included work and nonwork. Taken together the results provide support for the idea that work and nonwork domains are unique spheres with similar corresponding modalities. A final study by Rooney (1983) found that a variety of motivational and experiential variables differentiated individuals occupying three distinct life roles: worker, student, homemaker. In terms of emotional attachment to the role, two significant discriminant functions were found. The first associated with achievement orientation and parental support and separated those whose primary role attachment was that of student from both workers (higher scores) and homemakers (lower scores). The second function sets apart homemakers from both workers and students and suggests that homemakers have higher social approval needs and receive more counselor support, yet also report lower career commitment, parental and teacher support, and less of a masculine orientation. A second set of analyses were conducted based on the time commitment invested in each role. Students were differentiated from both workers and homemakers by higher scores on achievement orientation, independence, and general parental support, as well as lower scores on parental course support. A second function differentiated homemakers from workers (and to some extent students). Again, stronger social approval and counselor support emerged as important for homemakers, in addition to higher class rank, greater role satisfaction, lower teacher and community support, and weaker career commitment.

Finally, Rothbard (2001) examined competing hypotheses about whether engagement in work and family roles is enriching or depleting. Her findings demonstrate that both processes operate and gender differences exist. In terms of work–family depletion, as investments in one's work role increased so did negative affect at work, which in turn decreased attention to the family role. However, this work–family depletion effect held only for women. Gender differences in enrichment were also found. In terms of work-to-family enrichment, men's positive work affect related

to greater family attention. No such effect was found for women. However, for women (but not men) positive family affect related to greater work absorption, suggesting family-to-work enrichment. Although not hypothesized, a compensation effect was also found for family-to-work depletion among women. Specifically, women's negative family affect related to increased engagement in their work role.

6. General discussion

This section provides a summary and integration of the findings associated with the content analysis and subsequent literature review. First, consistent themes that emerge in the review are identified. Second, we comment on the general state of IO/OB WF research and follow this up with an analysis of gaps in the existing IO/OB WF literature and recommendations for future research. We conclude with a discussion of the limitations associated with this review and some final thoughts on the IO/OB WF literature.

6.1. Consistent themes in the literature

6.1.1. Work–family relationships are complex

Our review demonstrates that work–family relationships are complex and multivariate studies are needed to examine how work influences family and vice versa. Experiences in both work and family domains are related to work outcomes (e.g., Adams et al., 1996; Bretz et al., 1994; Dornstein & Matalon, 1989; Parasuraman et al., 1996) as well as family outcomes (e.g., Anderson-Kulman & Paludi, 1986; Barling & Macewen, 1992; Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Jackson & Maslach, 1982; Parasuraman et al., 1996), although domain-specific (i.e., work to work, family to family) effects appear to be stronger and more consistent (e.g., Aryee & Luk, 1996; Edwards & Rothbard, 1999; Frone et al., 1992a; Frone, Yardley, & Markel, 1997; O'Driscoll et al., 1992; Sekaran, 1983a; Vinokur et al., 1999). This highlights the importance of considering both domain-specific predictors (e.g., work stressors as predictors of work-to-family conflict) as well as crossover effects across domains (e.g., work stressors as predictors of family functioning) in future WF research. There is also strong evidence that work-to-family conflict is more prevalent than family-to-work conflict (e.g., Eagle et al., 1997; Frone et al., 1992b; Gutek et al., 1991) and some initial evidence that non-linear relationships may be important to consider to more fully understand the work–nonwork interface (Edwards & Rothbard, 1999).

Another indication that work and family relationships are complex is the multidimensional nature of WFC. Consistent with Greenhaus and Beutell's (1985) claim, our review revealed that time-based, strain-based, and behavior-based conflict have some unique antecedents (e.g., Greenhaus et al., 1989; Loerch et al., 1989). Further, work-to-family conflict is distinct from family-to-work conflict as evidenced by their different predictors and consequences (e.g., Anderson et al., 2002; Carlson & Kacmar, 2000; Grandey & Cropanzano, 1999; O'Driscoll et al., 1992; Parasuraman et al., 1996). Moreover, these two forms of WFC appear to be reciprocally related

(e.g., Anderson et al., 2002; Carlson & Kacmar, 2000; Frone et al., 1992a) and cross-over effects exist between home and work stress (Doby & Caplan, 1995). The recognition that work and family may influence each other in a reciprocal fashion is relatively new, but illustrates growing sophistication in conceptualizing work–family relationships among WF scholars. Another indication of more fine-grained research is the recent development of WFC measures that incorporate both the bi-directional nature of work–family conflict (work-to-family and family-to-work) along with time-based, behavior-based and strain-based aspects of WFC (Carlson et al., 2000) as well as research demonstrating that behavior-based conflict may be a particularly strong predictor of job satisfaction (Bruck et al., 2002).

6.1.2. Conflict theory has been the dominant paradigm to study WF issues

Most IO/OB WF research predicted an unfavorable relationship between work and family. This is not surprising since WF research grew out of research on interrole conflict (Kahn et al., 1964) and several predominant theories of the WF interface predict unfavorable outcomes (cf. Zedeck & Mosier, 1990). Further, existing research supports the idea of negative spillover in terms of WFC (e.g., Carlson, 1999; Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Greenhaus et al., 1987; Rothbard, 2001; Williams & Alliger, 1994), work role stress and family life (e.g., Doby & Caplan, 1995; Hughes & Galinsky, 1994; Jackson et al., 1985), and job-related relocation (e.g., Caliguri et al., 1998; Munton, 1990; Shaffer & Harrison, 1998).

The review also provides compelling evidence that negative spillover occurs across individuals in the same family unit. This includes crossover effects between spouses (e.g., Beehr et al., 1995; Greenhaus et al., 1989; Hammer et al., 1997; Jackson & Maslach, 1982; Jackson et al., 1985; Shaffer & Harrison, 1998; Westman & Etzion, 1995) as well as between parents and children (e.g., Barling et al., 1998). Given the complexity of family life and the fact that families exist as systems of interdependent individuals, we strongly urge researchers to continue to examine such crossover effects within families. We also encourage researchers to examine the nature of crossover effects between employees and extended family members since relatives can play an important role in helping employees balance work and family (e.g., by helping with childcare) (Kossek, 1990; Kossek & Nichol, 1992) yet can also be a source of stress (e.g., eldercare responsibility) (Kossek et al., 2001; Lee et al., 2001).

Notwithstanding the substantial support that exists for the conflict perspective, Greenhaus and Parasuraman (1999) argue that research on the favorable effects of work on family (and family on work) is critical to understand the complexities of work–family interaction. Frone (2003) makes a similar plea in his suggestion that work and family can positively influence one another through work–family facilitation, defined as the extent to which participation in one domain (work or family) is made easier by experience and skills developed in the other domain. Recent research has distinguished this as a distinct construct from work–family conflict (Wayne et al., in press) and finds that family-to-work facilitation can buffer the deleterious effects of work–family conflict on mental health (Grzywacz & Bass, 2003). In addition, Rothbard's (2001) recent study found support for both work–family depletion (negative spillover) and work family enrichment (positive spillover), indicating that researchers

should expand their thinking about the relationships between work and family domains to include the possibility of both types of effects.

6.1.3. Gender is deeply engrained in WF relationships

The review indicated that both gender differences and gender role issues are essential to consider to fully understand the work–family interface. For example, gender differences in WFC have been repeatedly found. This includes differences in experienced WFC between men and women (e.g., Behson, 2002a; Frone et al., 1992b; Gutek et al., 1991; Loerch et al., 1989; Wallace, 1999) as well as the finding that there are unique antecedents of WFC in the work (e.g., Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Greenhaus et al., 1989; Wallace, 1999) and family domains (e.g., Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Loerch et al., 1989) for men and women. However, there is no clear pattern in terms of the relative importance of work or family domain predictors for men and women's WFC; for both genders stressors in each domain predict WFC. There is also some evidence that the relationship between WFC and outcomes may vary by gender (e.g. Duxbury & Higgins, 1991) and that gender moderates the enriching and depleting effects of work–family interactions (Rothbard, 2001).

While less WF IO/OB literature exists on work role stress, there is evidence that professional women have more difficulty relaxing after work and report greater stress in both their work and nonwork lives than men (Frankenhaeuser et al., 1989; Lundberg & Frankenhaeuser, 1999; Parasurman & Simmers, 2001, life stress only). Research on dual-earner couples also finds that women report greater stress symptoms than men (Lewis & Cooper, 1987), and that work and family stress are associated with different psychological symptoms for men and women (Schwartzberg & Dytell, 1996). Moreover there is some evidence that women benefit less than men from work arrangements designed to help facilitate work–family balance (Moen & Sweet, 2002) and fare less well in the job market after relocating for their husband's job (Eby, 2001). Other ways that gender appears to influence work and family life includes differences in marriage preference among the genders (Kassner, 1981), career plans (Lips, 1992; Shann, 1983), work values (e.g., Beutell & Brenner, 1986), and preferences for spouse employment assistance (Eby et al., 1997).

Gender role issues also repeatedly emerged in the studies reviewed. This includes variables such as gender identity, sex role attitudes, and role salience in relation to career outcomes (Lobel & St. Clair, 1992), patterns and motives for self-employment (Loscocco, 1997), beliefs about work and family life (Matsui et al., 1999; Shann, 1983), stress and coping among women (Beutell & Greenhaus, 1983), intentions to work after childbirth (Werbel, 1998), and organizational attractiveness (Honeycutt & Rosen, 1997). Gender role issues also manifest in the finding that women have primary responsibility for childcare and household tasks (e.g., Lundberg & Frankenhaeuser, 1999), even if they are in dual-earner marriages (Lewis & Cooper, 1987) and that women experience more career interruptions than men (Kirchmeyer, 1998; Lyness & Thompson, 1997). Consistent with sex role stereotypes, women are also more likely to restructure their work to meet family demands than men (Karambayya & Reilly, 1992), capitalize on work schedule flexibility in an effort to balance work and family responsibilities (Loscocco, 1997), and benefit more from positive

effects of schedule flexibility on the quality of family life (Staines & Pleck, 1986). Also consistent with sex role stereotypes, a partner's work involvement has different effects on husbands and wives (Hammer et al., 1997; Lambert, 1991; Lewis & Cooper, 1987) and husbands with working wives tend to report lower job and life satisfaction than those with a nonworking spouse (Greenhaus et al., 1989; Staines et al., 1986). Women also report more problems with childcare than men (Kossek, 1990) and report stronger negative effects of childcare (Buffardi et al., 1999) and eldercare (Lee et al., 2001) on work and personal outcomes. There is also some initial evidence that fathers may influence children's attitudes and behaviors more than mothers (e.g., Barling et al., 1998). A final way in which gender roles appear to influence work–family relationships is the finding that gender cues others' expectations and attributions about men and women in ways that are consistent with societal sex role stereotypes (Eby et al., 1999; Westman & Etzion, 1990).

6.1.4. Family structure is important to consider in WF research

Another noticeable trend is that family structure represents an important construct in IO/OB WF research. For example, parental status has been linked to WFC (e.g., Beatty, 1996, women only; Carlson, 1999; Grandey & Cropanzano, 1999, family-to-work conflict only; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000), more interrole conflicts (Beutell & Greenhaus, 1982, women only), greater stress (Lewis & Cooper, 1987; Lundberg & Frankenhaeuser, 1999, especially among women), higher absenteeism (Blau, 1985), and retirement decisions (Hanisch, 1994; Kim & Feldman, 1998). Parents also appear to differ from those without children in terms of job and work attitudes (e.g., Iverson & Roy, 1994; Klein, 1988). Moreover, parental status interacts with other variables in predicting work and family outcomes. For example, job flexibility enhances marital relations, but particularly for those with young children (Hughes & Galinsky, 1994). Likewise, flexibility in work schedules is related to more favorable attitudes among women with children living at home than those without (Scandura & Lankau, 1997). Differences in on-the-job and off-the-job experiences also vary by marital type (i.e., single, dual-earner, and single-earner). For instance, dual-earner men report less involvement and identification with their jobs (Gould & Werbel, 1983) and report a stronger relationship between work and family conflict (Higgins & Duxbury, 1992) than single-earner men. In addition, those in dual-earner marriages are perceived by others as less suitable candidates for job-related relocation than single-earners (Eby et al., 1999).

Furthermore, it may be important to consider several family characteristics simultaneously to understand the work–nonwork interface. Childcare preferences have been found to vary across individuals in different family structures (Kossek, 1990) as have individuals' career experiences (Tharenou, 1999). In addition, male and female managers differ consistently in terms of their reported marital and parental status (e.g., Kirchmeyer, 1998; Lyness & Thompson, 1997). This suggests that either self-selection may be operating or opportunities vary as a function of marital type, parental status, and gender. Male and female parents and non-parents also appear to differ considerably in their reasons for, and experience in, self-employment (Loscocco, 1997). Moreover, female parents experience more job overload and stress

than male parents (Lundberg & Frankenhaeuser, 1999). Finally, being female and having responsibility for dependent care is associated with higher family-to-work conflict (Behson, 2002a).

6.2. *The general state of IO/OB WF research*

Consistent with past criticisms of WF research (e.g., Kanungo & Misra, 1984; Voydanoff, 1988; Zedeck, 1992) we found that little attention has been placed on developing or testing theoretical models of the work–family interface. More common are studies that rely on previous research findings to develop hypotheses or discuss various theories to frame study predictions without testing specific theories or articulating *why* particular relationships are expected based on theory. Thus, although we possess a great deal of knowledge about work and family research based on hypothesis testing studies, IO/OB research on WF issues appears to lack comprehensive theory building or model testing, both of which are necessary to develop a strong and coherent body of research (Sutton & Staw, 1995). This may also contribute to the perception that WF research is light on theory (Zedeck, 1992) and fractionalized (Allen et al., 2000).

The limited number of exploratory studies and relatively small percentage of studies examining mediated relationships may relate to this lack of emphasis on model development and testing. Since exploratory research facilitates general understanding of a phenomenon rather than tests specific predictions, it is useful to theory-building by identifying relevant variables and contextual conditions related to the phenomenon of interest (Babbie, 2001). It also allows isolation of relationship patterns and recurring themes, another important element of theory development (Whetten, 1989). Perhaps limited exploratory research has restricted IO/OB WF theory development and hindered our understanding of the relationships between work and family. Given that theory is designed to answer the question of “what”, “how” and “why” (Whetten, 1989), research efforts aimed at understanding the psychological and behavioral processes linking work and family are essential for theory development and model building. However, only a small percent (28%) of predictive studies examined mediated effects. These trends suggest more research is needed to develop, test, and apply existing theoretical frameworks to study work and family as well as examine the underlying processes linking work and family domains.

Our findings also generally support Zedeck’s (1992) contention that many of the predictors studied in WF research describe objective characteristics of the person in his or her work (e.g., job type, education, and full-time versus part-time work status) and family (e.g., number of children, marital status, and spouse work status) roles (see Table 4). This confirms several scholars’ criticisms of WF research; specifically, that researchers need to develop a better understanding of how the quality of one’s roles influences the work–family interface (Barnett & Hyde, 2001; Parker & Hall, 1992; Zedeck, 1992). Zedeck (1992) also discussed how IO/OB research tends to focus on the centrality of work, rather than family, in people’s lives. The frequent use of work attitudes in IO/OB WF research as predictors, mediators, and criteria (see Tables 4–6) is consistent with this criticism. However, it is interesting that although

work domain variables have received substantial research attention they are not necessarily better developed or more conceptually sophisticated than the family domain variables included in this review. For instance, most commonly studied work-related variables are general affective reactions such as work attitudes, or job attributes such as the number of hours worked and type of work schedule (see Tables 4–6). Future research might more closely examine specific facets of job satisfaction (e.g., satisfaction with supervision and satisfaction with promotions) or other indicators of work role quality (e.g., whether needs for autonomy or challenge are met) in relation to family domain variables.

Taken together, the results of our review indicate that as a whole IO/OB WF research has not made substantial progress toward ameliorating the problems identified by WF scholars. We now turn our attention to discussing specific gaps in the literature and posing suggestions for future research.

6.3. Gaps in the existing IO/OB WF research

Synthesizing the content analysis results and the narrative review of the IO/OB WF research allows us to identify several gaps in the existing literature.

6.3.1. Limited perspective on work and family roles

As noted earlier, most of the research reviewed examined objective characteristics of one's work and/or family role. Such variables are typically proxies for the quality or nature of, or expectations about, one's roles (Zedeck, 1992; Zedeck & Mosier, 1990). However, objective characteristics of one's roles (e.g., managerial status, parental status) are not likely to capture the complexity of work and family roles (Parker & Hall, 1992). For example, the distinction between parents and non-parents is often used to make inferences about the extent of family role obligations. Given that family can be both a responsibility or stressor as well as a source of support, such gross conceptualizations of the family role tell us little about what the family role actually demands or provides for the individual. Moreover, knowing that the number of children (an objective family characteristic) is related to work–family conflict does not inform us as to *how, why, and under what circumstances* children contribute to perceptions of work–family conflict. As another illustration, there is substantial variability among women in terms of expectations for career and family life (Cleveland et al., 2000) and important distinctions between different types of part-time work arrangements (e.g., permanent/temporary, voluntary/involuntary, main job/second job) (cf. Feldman, 1990) that are not captured by simple role membership.

A few studies exist which illustrate the utility of moving beyond simple role membership to more phenomenologically rich constructs such as role salience (e.g., Matsui et al., 1999), role involvement (e.g., Carlson & Perrewé, 1999; Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Higgins et al., 1992; Williams & Alliger, 1994), and life role values (Carlson & Kacmar, 2000) to understand work–family issues. Extending this idea, research is needed on whether one's expectations about work and family roles are met or not. This is important since unmet expectations are related to job and work attitudes (Wanous et al., 1992) and spillover theory suggests that unmet expectations

in one domain may affect attitudes in the other domain. Research by Edwards and Rothbard (1999) on work–family fit is an important step in this direction since it considers both what one values out of various roles and what one is receiving from those roles. We strongly encourage IO/OB WF research to continue to move in this direction in future research.

6.3.2. Over-emphasis on the work domain

As noted previously, work domain variables are more strongly represented in the present review than family domain variables. In fact, we found relatively little research on marital satisfaction, family satisfaction, spouse satisfaction, and satisfaction with friends, and no research on leisure satisfaction. A decade ago Parker and Hall (1992) criticized IO/OB WF research as not adequately considering the totality of individuals' nonwork lives. Our review illustrates that IO/OB WF research has made little progress in this area. The virtual omission of nonwork domain variables such as leisure activities, community, church, and volunteer activities, and sources of support such as extended family is noteworthy given that multiple role membership can buffer stress and enhance quality of life (Barnett & Hyde, 2001; Ruderman et al., 2002). Finally, while much IO/OB WF research has examined work–family conflict, little research has examined parent–child relationships, parenting style, or child behavior (for exceptions see Barling, 1986b; Stewart & Barling, 1996). This likely reflects our inclusion criteria which focused exclusively on IO/OB journals. We expect research in other disciplines like family studies and sociology more comprehensively examines these aspects of the non-work domain. This reinforces the need for IO/OB scholars to follow WF research in other disciplines.

6.3.3. Minimal consideration of individual differences

Parker and Hall (1992) also raised a concern that the role of the “self,” or core identity of an individual, has not been adequately addressed in WF research. Our findings substantiate this claim in that little predictive research has examined individual differences such as personality and motivational traits (see Tables 4–6). In contrast, qualitative research is much more likely to examine individual differences (see Table 7). Industrial and organizational psychology has a long history of studying individual differences so the relative lack of attention to individual differences is surprising. Further, very little research has examined how experiences or circumstances such as parental attitudes, career experiences, early childhood socialization experiences, college experiences, friendship patterns, and dating relationships shape the self as it relates to the work–family interface. This seems like a clear gap in the literature given research suggests early role modeling and relational experiences are important in developing subsequent work attitudes and decisions about one's career (e.g., Barling, 1986b; Barling et al., 1998; Kassner, 1981). However, we are encouraged by recent research on individual differences in life role values (Carlson & Kacmar, 2000), attachment style (Sumer & Knight, 2001), negative affectivity (Stoeva et al., 2002), and personality (Grzywacz & Marks, 2000) in relation to work–family relationships.

6.3.4. *Limited research on support and coping*

Another gap in the IO/OB WF literature is the relative lack of research on support and coping. This is puzzling given the frequent study of work role stress, as well as health and wellness (see Tables 4–7), and the extensive literature linking support and coping to such variables (cf. Quick & Tetrick, 2003). Further, the type of support most commonly studied is spouse support (e.g., Beatty, 1996; Rosenbaum & Cohen, 1999; Suchet & Barling, 1986); although a few recent studies have examined supervisory or organizational support (e.g., Allen, 2001; Carlson & Perrewé, 1999; Clark, 2001; Thompson et al., 1999). It was particularly surprising that so few studies examined family-supportive organizational policies given practitioner interest in developing “family-friendly” work environments. Thus, we encourage IO/OB researchers to continue to expand their thinking about the role of support and more consistently examine sources of support in both the work environment (e.g., coworkers, managers, supportive policies) and family environment (e.g., children, extended family). Social capital theory may be a useful theoretical bridge for such efforts since it refers to the goodwill extended to someone from a variety of sources within his or her social network (Adler & Kwon, 2002). Moreover, since work–family support systems occur at various levels of analysis (individual, family, work group, organization) future research might examine support from multiple levels of analysis, exploring individual-level, as well as cross-level effects (e.g., how work group support influences individual outcomes).

We further recommend continued examination of both positive (e.g., problem-focused) and negative (e.g., drinking and drug use) coping strategies in response to work–family dilemmas since there is some evidence that certain types of coping are more effective in coping with stress than others (e.g., Beutell & Greenhaus, 1982, 1983; Matsui et al., 1995). However, since most of this research has focused on women, we encourage more IO/OB research on coping among both genders. It may also be useful to examine the role of self-regulatory behavior in coping, since research suggests that individuals who effectively engage in self-regulation are more effective in a variety of ways (Bandura, 1997). For example, consistent with Zahrly and Tosi’s (1989) finding that high self-monitors reported less WFC, one might examine whether those who are effective at self-regulation also experience less work–family conflict.

6.3.5. *Lack of specificity in measures of affective reactions*

While work attitudes represent some of the most commonly studied variables in the IO/OB WF research, many of the affective variables examined (e.g., job satisfaction, life satisfaction, and family stress) represent general affect or stress and do not allow a fine-grained assessment of the relationship between work and family life. For example, knowing that family stress relates to job satisfaction tells us little about which sources of family stress (e.g., spouse work stress, children’s social adjustment, family health issues) are particularly important or which facets of job satisfaction (e.g., supervision, growth, salary) are affected by family stress. Bruck et al.’s (2002) examination of specific sources of WFC and different aspects of job satisfaction represents an important step in this direction, but additional research is needed.

It is also curious that career attitudes were not frequently studied as predictors (2.6%) or criteria (2.9%). This seems like an important gap in the literature since career-related attitudes such as willingness to relocate, career commitment, and career salience are likely to affect career decisions (e.g., decisions about travel and relocation, time investment in one's work role), which in turn can influence family life. Further, career attitudes are often discussed in relation to parental status (e.g., parents may be less committed to their careers than non-parents) and dual-earner couples' WF dilemmas (e.g., Gould & Penley, 1985; Kirchmeyer, 1998), suggesting they may be important explanatory mechanisms. Thus, we encourage researchers to also more systematically consider career attitudes as both predictors and criteria.

6.3.6. Little research on how family variables affect employee behaviors

The frequent examination of work attitudes (particularly as criteria) is juxtaposed against the relative *infrequent* use of employee behaviors (5.3%) as criteria. Work attitudes are often argued to be important criteria because they relate to employee behaviors or organizational outcomes (e.g., Judge et al., 1994; Scandura & Lankau, 1997), and collecting data on behaviors (i.e. absenteeism, job performance) is more difficult than obtaining attitudinal data. However, if theoretical rationale and previous research (e.g., Blau, 1985; Kossek, 1990; Kossek & Nichol, 1992) suggests family variables affect employee behaviors, effort should be made to obtain employee outcome data rather than using work attitudes as proxy variables. Doing so both strengthens conceptual links between work and family and helps legitimize WF issues to organizational decision-makers by demonstrating that WF variables can and do influence the bottom-line.

6.4. Limitations and concluding thoughts

By design, the scope of this paper was limited to journals commonly read in the I/O and OB research domains. Topics discussed in the articles reviewed are representative of this orientation to WF research. Given that work–family is an interdisciplinary research topic, it is likely that topics identified as “under-studied” are represented in work–family literature published in other academic disciplines such as family studies, sociology, and counseling psychology. In addition, we conducted a content analysis and narrative review of the literature but did not summarize the effect sizes associated with specific work–family relationships as would be done in a meta-analytic review. Thus, we offer a different perspective on WF research than previous reviews and provide a starting point for researchers interested in conducting meta-analytic research. Another limitation is that while the content analysis provides an overarching look at the types of studies conducted and the topics explored, we did not summarize sample characteristics or research methods utilized. Such information would cast light on the generalizability of work–family research to diverse employees as well as on the methodological rigor of the extant research.

Notwithstanding these limitations, this monograph provides a comprehensive perspective on IO/OB research on work and family from 1980 to 2002. It highlights the IO/OB orientation toward work and family relationships and identifies gaps in

our knowledge of the work–family interface. We also provide scholars with a broad understanding of the types of studies that characterize IO/OB WF research. It is hoped that the present review serves as a springboard for future empirical studies and theory building on the interaction between work and family domains.

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